

**Verjetnostne metode v
računalništvu - zapiski s
predavanj prof. Marca**

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Poglavje 1

Introduction

1.1 Probability

(Ω, F, P_r) :

- $\emptyset \in F$,
- $A \in F \implies A^c \in F$,
- $A_1, A_2 \dots \in F \implies \cup_{i=1}^{\infty} A_i \in F$.

$$P_r(A) \geq 0,$$

$$P_r(\cup_{i=1}^{\infty} A_i) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} P_r(A_i) \text{ if } A_i \text{ disjoint,}$$

$$P_r(\cup_{i=1}^{\infty} A_i) \leq \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} P_r(A_i),$$

$\Omega = \{\omega_1, \omega_2 \dots\}$ - countable case.

$$\begin{pmatrix} \omega_1 & \omega_2 & \dots \\ p_1 & p_2 & \dots \end{pmatrix}$$

Example.

`Alg():`

`while True:`

`B = sample as random from {0,1} # 1 with probability p`

`if B = 1:`

return

$$\Omega = \{1, 01, 001, 0001 \dots\}$$

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 01 & 001 & 0001 & \dots \\ p & (1-p)p & (1-p)^2p & (1-p)^3p & \dots \end{pmatrix}.$$

1.2 Random variables

$X : \Omega \rightarrow \mathbb{Z}$.

$E[X] = \sum_{c \in \mathbb{Z}} c \cdot P_r(X = c)$: expected value of X .

Properties:

- $E[f(X)] = \sum_{c \in \mathbb{Z}} f(c) \cdot P_r(X = c)$,
- $E[aX + bY] = aE[X] + bE[Y]$,
- $E[X \cdot Y] = E[X] \cdot E[Y]$ if X, Y independent,
- $P_r(X \geq a) \leq \frac{E[X]}{a}$; $\forall a > 0 \forall X \geq 0$ Markov inequality.

Example. (Continuing from before).

X = number of trials before return.

$X : \Omega \rightarrow \mathbb{Z}$.

$$X : 1 \mapsto 1, 01 \mapsto 2, 001 \mapsto 3 \dots$$

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 & \dots \\ p & (1-p)p & (1-p)^2p & (1-p)^3p & \dots \end{pmatrix} - \text{geometric distribution.}$$

Claim 1.2.1. $E[X] = \frac{1}{p}$.

Proof 1.2.2. $X = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} X_i$.

$$X_i = \begin{cases} 1 : & \text{if trial } i \text{ is executed} \\ 0 : & \text{else} \end{cases}$$

$$\begin{aligned} E[X] &= E \left[\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} X_i \right] = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} E[X_i] = \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} (1-p)^{i-1} = \sum_{i=0}^{\infty} (1-p)^i = \frac{1}{1-(1-p)} = \frac{1}{p}. \end{aligned}$$

■

$$E[X] = \frac{1}{p}.$$

$$P_r(X \geq 100 \cdot \frac{1}{p}) \stackrel{\text{Markov}}{\leq} \frac{E[X]}{\frac{1}{p}} = \frac{1}{100}.$$

Definition 1.2.3. $H_n = 1 + \frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{3} + \cdots + \frac{1}{n} = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{i}.$

Theorem 1.2.4. $H_n \leq 1 + \ln(n).$

Proof 1.2.5.

$$H_n = 1 + \sum_{i=2}^n \frac{1}{i} \stackrel{\text{integral}}{\leq} 1 + \int_1^n \frac{dx}{x} = 1 + \ln(x)|_1^n = 1 + \ln(n).$$

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Poglavje 2

Quicksort, min-cut

2.1 Quicksort

Input: set (no equal element) (unordered list) $S \in \mathbb{R}$
(or whatever you can compare linearly)

Output: ordered list

Code:

```
def Quicksort(S):  
    if |S| = 0 or |S| = 1:  
        return S  
    else:  
        a = uniformly at random from S  
         $S^- = \{b \in S \mid b < a\}$   
         $S^+ = \{b \in S \mid a < b\}$   
        return Quicksort( $S^-$ ), a, Quicksort( $S^+$ )
```

$C(n)$ - random variable, the number of comparisons in evaluation of Quicksort with $|S| = n$.

Theorem 2.1.1. $E[C(n)] = O(N \log(n))$.

Proof 2.1.2. $C(0) = C(1) = 0$.

$$\begin{aligned}
E[C(n)] &= n - 1 + \sum_{i=1}^n (E[C(i-1)] + E[C(n-i)]) \cdot P_r(a \text{ is } i\text{-it element}) \leq \\
&\leq n + \frac{2}{n} \sum_{i=1}^{n-1} E[C(i)].
\end{aligned}$$

Induction: (Inductive hypothesis is $C(n) \leq 5n \log n$)

$n = 1 : \checkmark$

$n - 1 \rightarrow n$:

$$\begin{aligned}
E[C(n)] &\leq n + \frac{2}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n E[C(i)] \leq \\
&\leq n + \frac{2}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n 5i \log i \leq \\
&\leq n + \frac{2}{n} \sum_{i=1}^{\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \rfloor} 5i \log i + \frac{2}{n} \sum_{i=1+\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \rfloor}^{n-1} 5i \log i \leq \\
&\leq n + \frac{2}{n} \sum_{i=1}^{\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \rfloor} 5i \log \frac{n}{2} + \frac{2}{n} \sum_{i=1+\lfloor \frac{n}{2} \rfloor}^{n-1} 5i \log n \leq \\
&\stackrel{2.1}{\leq} n + \frac{2}{n} \left(\sum_{i=1}^n 5i \log n - \sum_{i=1}^{\frac{n}{2}} 5i \right) = \\
&= n + \frac{10}{n} \left(\frac{n(n-1)}{2} \log n - \frac{\frac{n}{2}(\frac{n}{2} \cdot 1)}{2} \right) \leq \\
&\leq n + 5(n-1) \log n - n < \\
&< 5n \log n.
\end{aligned}$$

$$\log \frac{n}{2} = \log n - 1 \tag{2.1}$$

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This theorem gives us the following inequality: $P(C(n) \geq b \cdot 5n \log n) \stackrel{\text{Markov}}{\leq} \frac{1}{b}$. We give an alternative proof of the previous theorem:

Proof 2.1.3.

Let $S_1, S_2 \dots S_n$ sorted elements of S .

Define random variable $X_{ij} = \begin{cases} 1 : & \text{if } S_i \text{ and } S_j \text{ are compared} \\ 0 : & \text{else} \end{cases}$

$$C(n) = \sum_{1 \leq i < j \leq n} X_{ij}.$$

$$E[X_{ij}] = P(S_i \text{ and } S_j \text{ compared}).$$

S_{ij} - the last set including S_i and S_j .

$E[X_{ij}] = \frac{2}{|S_{ij}|} \leq \frac{2}{j-i+1}$ because $|S_{ij}| \geq j-i+1$ because S_{ij} contains all elements between S_i and S_j .

$$\begin{aligned} \Rightarrow E[C(n)] &\leq \sum_{1 \leq i < j \leq n} \frac{2}{j-i+1} = \\ &\underline{\underline{\sum_{i=1}^{n-1} \sum_{k=2}^{n-i+1} \frac{2}{k}}} \leq \\ &\leq 2 \cdot n \cdot H_n \leq \\ &\leq 2n(1 + \log n). \end{aligned}$$

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2.2 Min-cut

G multigraph.

Cut: $U \subset V(G)$, $U \neq \emptyset, V(G)$.

$(U, V(G) \setminus U) = \{uv \in E(G) \mid u \in U, v \in V(G) \setminus U\}$.

Problem min-cut:

Input: G .

Output: $\min |(U, V(G) \setminus U)|$ - cut size.

Algorithm 1:

$x \in V(G)$

Call `maxFlow(G, x, y)` $\forall y \in V(G)$

Take `min`

maxFlow is Edmonds-Karp algorithm $O(|V||E|^2)$. This algorithm returns the minimum cut because maximum flow is equal to minimum cut.

A quicker deterministic algorithm is the Stoer-Wagner algorithm with time complexity $O(|E||V| + |V|^2 \log |V|)$.

We give the probabilistic Karger algorithm:

Algorithm randMinCut:

```

 $G_0 = G$ 
 $i = 0$ 
while  $|V(G_i)| > 2$ :
     $e_i =$  uniformly at random from  $G_i$  ( $e_i$  is an edge)
     $G_{i+1} = G_i / e_i$  (we contract  $e_i$ )
     $i = i + 1$ 
 $u, v = V(G_{n-2})$  #  $n = |V(G)|$ 
( $u, v$  are vertices left after we finish the loop)
 $U = \{w \in V(G) \mid w \text{ is merged into } u\}$ 
return  $(U, V(G) \setminus U)$ 

```

Theorem 2.2.1. Algorithm *randMinCut* gives you a minimal cut with probability greater or equal to $\frac{2}{n(n-1)}$.

Proof 2.2.2.

Fact 1: $\minCut(G_i) \leq \minCut(G_{i+1})$; Fact 2: $\minCut(G) \leq \delta(G)$.

$k := \minCut(G)$.

Let (A, B) be an optimal cut.

Let ε_i be the event when e_i not in (A, B) .

$$\begin{aligned}
 & P_r(\text{Algorithm returning } (A, B)) \\
 &= P_r(\varepsilon_0 \cap \dots \cap \varepsilon_{n-3}) \quad i = 0 \dots n-3 \\
 &= P_r(\varepsilon_0 \cap \dots \cap \varepsilon_{n-4}) \cdot P_r(\varepsilon_{n-3} \mid \varepsilon_0 \cap \dots \cap \varepsilon_{n-4}) \\
 &= P_r(\varepsilon_{n-3} \mid \cap_{i=0}^{n-4} \varepsilon_i) \cdot P_r(\varepsilon_{n-3} \mid \cap_{i=0}^{n-4} \varepsilon_i) \\
 &\quad \dots P_r(\varepsilon_1 \mid \varepsilon_0) \cdot P_r(\varepsilon_0) \\
 &\stackrel{2.3}{\geq} \frac{n-2}{n} \cdot \frac{n-3}{n-1} \cdot \dots \cdot \frac{1}{3} = \frac{2}{n(n-1)}.
 \end{aligned}$$

$$P_r(\bar{\varepsilon}_i \mid \varepsilon_{i-1} \cap \dots \cap \varepsilon_0) = \frac{k}{|E(G_i)|} \stackrel{2.2}{\leq} \frac{k}{\frac{(n-i)k}{2}} = \frac{2}{n-i}$$

$$|E(G_i)| \geq \frac{(n-i)\delta(G)}{2} \geq \frac{(n-i)k}{2}. \quad (2.2)$$

$$P_r(\varepsilon_i \mid \varepsilon_{i-1} \cap \dots \cap \varepsilon_0) \geq 1 - \frac{2}{n-i} = \frac{n-2-i}{n-i}. \quad (2.3)$$

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Theorem 2.2.3. Running *randMinCut* $n(n-1)$ times and taking best output gives correct solution with probability ≥ 0.86 .

Proof 2.2.4. A_i - event that i -th run gives sub-optimal solution.

$$\begin{aligned} P_r(\text{solution not correct}) &= P_r(A_1 \cap \dots \cap A_{n(n-1)}) \\ &= \prod_{i=1}^{n(n-1)} P_r(A_i) \leq \left(1 - \frac{2}{n(n-1)}\right)^{n(n-1)} \\ &\stackrel{2.4}{\leq} e^{-\frac{2}{n(n-1)} \cdot n(n-1)} = e^{-2} \leq 0.14. \end{aligned}$$

$$1 + x \leq e^x \quad \forall x \in \mathbb{R}. \quad (2.4)$$

■

If we run *randMinCut* $n(n-1) \log(n)$ times, we get an incorrect answer with probability at most $\frac{1}{n^2}$ (repeat the previous proof). Because contracting an edge takes $m = |E|$ operations, we get the time complexity $O(mn^2 \log n)$. We could improve the algorithm to get time complexity $O(mn \log^3 n)$.

Poglavje 3

Complexity classes

Decision problem - yes/no question on a set of inputs = asking $w \in \Pi$.

Randomized algorithms:

- Las Vegas algorithms: always gives correct solution but isn't always quick, example: *Quicksort*.
- Monte Carlo algorithms: it can give wrong answers. Monte Carlo algorithms subtypes:

$$\text{-- type(1): } \begin{cases} \omega \in \Pi \implies \text{alg. returns } \omega \in \Pi \text{ with probab. } \geq \frac{1}{2} \\ \omega \notin \Pi \implies \text{alg. returns } \omega \in \Pi \text{ with probab. } = 0 \end{cases}$$

$$\text{-- type(2): } \begin{cases} \omega \in \Pi \implies \text{alg. returns } \omega \in \Pi \text{ with probab. } = 1 \\ \omega \notin \Pi \implies \text{alg. returns } \omega \in \Pi \text{ with probab. } \leq \frac{1}{2} \end{cases}$$

$$\text{-- type(3): } \begin{cases} \omega \in \Pi \implies \text{alg. returns } \omega \in \Pi \text{ with probab. } \geq \frac{3}{4} \\ \omega \notin \Pi \implies \text{alg. returns } \omega \in \Pi \text{ with probab. } \leq \frac{1}{4} \end{cases}$$

type(1) and type(2): one-sided error, type(3): 2-sided error.

$\frac{1}{2}$, $\frac{3}{4}$ and $\frac{1}{4}$ arbitrary numbers, can be something different (for type(3) better than coin flip).

Example. Decision problem: does a graph G have $\text{minCut} \leq k$?

Run $\text{randMinCut}(G)$ $n(n-1)$ times.

```

Algorithm randMinCut:
  if one of runs gives  $|(A,B)| \leq k$ :
    return true
  else:
    return false

```

Complexity classes:

- RP (randomized polynomial time): decisional problems for which there exists Monte Carlo algorithm of type(1) with polynomial time complexity (worst case).
- co-RP: decisional problems for which there exists Monte Carlo algorithm of type(2) with polynomial time complexity (worst case).
- BRP (bounded-error probabilistic polynomial time): decisional problems for which there exists Monte Carlo algorithm of type(3) with polynomial time complexity (worst case).
- ZPP (zero-error probabilistic polynomial time): decisional problems for which there exists Las Vegas algorithm with expected polynomial time complexity (worst case).

$\text{ZPP} = \text{RP} \cap \text{co-RP}$ (proof: <https://cs.stackexchange.com/questions/54782/why-is-zpp-rp-%E2%88%A9-co-rp>)

Poglavje 4

Chernoff bounds

Theorem 4.0.1. Let $X_1, X_2 \dots X_n$ independent random variables with image $\{0, 1\}$. Let

$$p_i = P_r(X_i = 1),$$

$$X = \sum_{i=1}^n X_i \text{ and}$$

$$\mu = E(X) = p_1 + \dots + p_n.$$

For every $\delta \in [0, 1]$:

$$\begin{aligned} P_r(X - \mu \geq \delta\mu) &\leq e^{-\frac{\delta^2\mu}{3}} \\ P_r(\mu - X \leq \delta\mu) &\leq e^{-\frac{\delta^2\mu}{2}} \\ \implies P_r(|X - \mu| \geq \delta\mu) &\leq 2e^{-\frac{\delta^2\mu}{3}}. \end{aligned}$$

Probability falls extremely quickly after $E(X)$.

Proof 4.0.2.

$$\begin{aligned}
P_r(X - \mu \geq \delta\mu) &= P_r(X \geq \mu(1 + \delta)) \\
&\stackrel{t \geq 0}{=} P_r(tX \geq t\mu(1 + \delta)) \\
&\stackrel{e^y \geq 0}{=} P_r(e^{tX} \geq e^{t\mu(1 + \delta)}) \\
&\stackrel{\text{Markov}}{\leq} \frac{E(e^{tX})}{e^{t\mu(1 + \delta)}} \\
&\stackrel{4.1}{\leq} \frac{e^{(e^t - 1)\mu}}{e^{t\mu(1 + \delta)}} \\
&\stackrel{4.3}{\leq} e^{-\mu \frac{\delta^2}{3}}.
\end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
E(e^{tX}) &= E(e^{tX_1 + \dots + tX_n}) \\
&= E(e^{tX_1} \dots e^{tX_n}) \\
&\stackrel{\text{independent}}{=} \prod_{i=1}^n E(e^{tX_i}) \\
&\stackrel{4.2}{\leq} \prod_{i=1}^n e^{p_i(e^t - 1)} \\
&= e^{(e^t - 1) \sum_{i=1}^n p_i} \\
&= e^{(e^t - 1)\mu}. \tag{4.1}
\end{aligned}$$

$$E(e^{tX_i}) = p_i \cdot e^t + (1 - p_i) \cdot e^0 = 1 + p_i(e^t - 1) \stackrel{2.4}{\leq} e^{p_i(e^t - 1)}. \tag{4.2}$$

We want:

$$e^t - 1 - t(1 + \delta) \leq -\frac{\delta^2}{3} \quad \forall \delta \in (0, 1) \tag{4.3}$$

We select $t = \ln(1 + \delta)$

$$f(\delta) = 1 + \delta - 1 - (1 + \delta) \ln(1 + \delta) + \frac{\delta^2}{3} \stackrel{?}{\leq} 0$$

$$f(0) = 0$$

$$f'(\delta) = 1 - \ln(1 + \delta) - 1 + \frac{2}{3}\delta = \frac{2}{3}\delta - \ln(1 + \delta) \stackrel{?}{\leq} 0$$

$$\frac{2}{3}\delta \leq \ln(1 + \delta) \text{ (we prove this by showing that LHS - RHS}$$

has one stationary point on $[0,1]$ and is negative in $\delta = 1$)

$$\delta = 1 : \frac{2}{3} \stackrel{?}{\leq} \ln(2) \approx 0.69 \checkmark$$

$$P_r(\mu - X \leq \delta\mu) = P_r(X \geq \mu(1 - \delta))$$

$$\stackrel{t \geq 0}{\geq} P_r(tX \geq t\mu(1 - \delta))$$

$$\stackrel{e^y \geq 0}{\geq} P_r(e^{tX} \geq e^{t\mu(1 - \delta)})$$

$$\leq \dots \leq \frac{e^{(e^t - 1)\mu}}{e^{t\mu(1 - \delta)}}.$$

Want: $e^t - 1 - t(1 - \delta) \leq -\frac{\delta^2}{2} \forall \delta \in (0,1)$:

We select $t = \ln(1 - \delta)$

$$f(\delta) = 1 - \delta - 1 - (1 - \delta) \ln(1 - \delta) + \frac{\delta^2}{2} \stackrel{?}{\leq} 0$$

$$f(0) = 0$$

$$f'(\delta) = -1 + 1 - \ln(1 - \delta) + \delta \stackrel{?}{\leq} 0$$

Similarly to before we prove that $\delta \leq \ln(1 - \delta)$

■

Let now $X_i \sim \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ \frac{1}{2} & \frac{1}{2} \end{pmatrix}$

$$X = \sum_{i=1}^n X_i$$

$$\mu = \frac{n}{2}$$

$$\begin{aligned} P_r \left(|X - \mu| \geq \sqrt{\frac{3}{2} n \ln(n)} \right) &= P_r \left(|X - \mu| \geq \frac{n}{2} \sqrt{\frac{6}{n} \ln(n)} \right) \\ &\stackrel{\text{Chernoff}}{\leq} 2e^{-\frac{\frac{n}{2} \frac{6}{n} \ln(n)}{3}} = \frac{2}{n}; \end{aligned}$$

For „big“ n is $\delta \in (0,1)$,

$$\begin{aligned} \mu &= \frac{n}{2}, \delta = \sqrt{\frac{6}{n} \ln(n)}. \\ d &= \sqrt{\frac{3}{2} n \ln(n)} \end{aligned}$$

$$\implies P_r \left(X \in \left(\mu - \sqrt{\frac{3}{2} n \ln(n)}, \mu + \sqrt{\frac{3}{2} n \ln(n)} \right) \right) \geq 1 - \frac{2}{n}.$$

Claim 4.0.3.

Let $X_1, X_2 \dots$ independent random variables with image $\{0,1\}$.

$$P_r(X_i = 1) = \frac{1}{2} \forall i.$$

Let $X = \sum_{i=1}^{cm} X_i$ where $c \geq 4, m \in \mathbb{N}$.

Then $P_r(X \leq m) \leq e^{-\frac{cm}{16}}$.

Proof 4.0.4.

$$\begin{aligned} P_r(X \leq m) &= P_r \left(\frac{cm}{2} - X \geq \frac{cm}{2} - m \right) \\ &= P_r \left(\frac{cm}{2} - X \geq \frac{cm}{2} \left(1 - \frac{2}{c} \right) \right) \\ &\stackrel{\text{Chernoff}}{\leq} e^{-\frac{\frac{cm}{2} \left(1 - \frac{2}{c} \right)^2}{2}} \\ &\stackrel{4.4}{\leq} e^{-\frac{\frac{cm}{2} \frac{1}{4}}{2}} = e^{-\frac{cm}{16}}. \end{aligned}$$

$$1 - \frac{2}{c} \geq \frac{1}{2} \text{ if } c \geq 4 \tag{4.4}$$

■

Back to Quicksort.

Theorem 4.0.5.

With probability $\geq 1 - \frac{1}{n}$ Quicksort uses at most $48n \ln(n)$ comparisons.

Proof 4.0.6.

Let $t_s - 1$ be the number of comparisons with s where s is not a pivot.. For $s \in S$ define $S_1, \dots, S_{t_s} \neq \emptyset$ sets that include s .

Define: iteration i is successful if $|S_{i+1}| \leq \frac{3}{4}|S_i|$ ($\frac{1}{2}$ is too strict).

$$X_i = \begin{cases} 1 : & \text{if iteration } i \text{ is successful} \\ 0 : & \text{else} \end{cases}$$

Notice: after at most $\log_{\frac{4}{3}}(n) = \frac{\ln(n)}{\ln(4)-\ln(3)}$ succesful iterations, the element s is sorted.

Probability that we haven't sorted s after $c \log_{\frac{4}{3}}(n)$ steps is at most:

$$\begin{aligned} P_r \left(\sum_{i=1}^{c \log_{\frac{4}{3}}(n)} X_i < \log_{\frac{4}{3}}(n) \right) &\leq P_r \left(\sum_{i=1}^{c \log_{\frac{4}{3}}(n)} Y_i < \log_{\frac{4}{3}}(n) \right) \quad (4.5) \\ &\stackrel{\text{Chernoff}}{<} e^{-\frac{c \log_{\frac{4}{3}}(n)}{24}} \\ &= e^{-\frac{c 2 \ln(n) \log_{\frac{4}{3}}(e)}{48}} \\ &= \frac{1}{n^2} \frac{c \log_{\frac{4}{3}}(e)}{48} \\ &\stackrel{4.6}{\leq} \left(\frac{1}{n} \right)^2. \end{aligned}$$

4.5 because X_i is not independent, we select such independent $Y_i \sim \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ \frac{1}{2} & \frac{1}{2} \end{pmatrix}$, so that $X_i \geq Y_i$ (how do we construct such Y_i ???)

$$\log_{\frac{4}{3}}(e) \approx 3.4, \text{ we select } c = 14. \quad (4.6)$$

Because of 4.6, we know that to sort s we will need at least $48 \ln(n)$ iterations with probability less than $\left(\frac{1}{n}\right)^2$. Denote this event with A_s . The probability that we will need at least $48 \ln(n)$ iterations to sort any $s \in S$ is $P(\cup_{s \in S} A_s) \leq \sum_{s \in S} P(A_s) \leq n \frac{1}{n^2} = \frac{1}{n}$. Thus we will need at $48n \ln(n)$ iterations in total with probability less than $\frac{1}{n}$ or in other words, total number of comparisons will be at most $48n \ln(n)$ with probability $1 - \frac{1}{n}$. ■

Poglavje 5

Monte Carlo methods

5.1 Example 1

Area of circle = $\frac{\pi}{4}$.

$$X_i = \begin{cases} 1 : & \text{if you hit the area of circle} \\ 0 : & \text{else} \end{cases}$$

$$P_r(X_i = 1) = \frac{\frac{\pi}{4}}{1} = \frac{\pi}{4}.$$

$$E(X_i) = \frac{\pi}{4}.$$

$$X = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n X_i}{n}.$$

$$E(X) = \frac{n \cdot E(X_i)}{n} = E(X_i).$$

5.2 Example 2

$I = \int_{\Omega} f(x) dx$ - volume.

$$X_i = \begin{cases} 1 : & f(x_i, y_i) \leq z_i \\ 0 : & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

$v \cdot E\left(\frac{\sum_{i=1}^n X_i}{n}\right) = I$ where v is the volume of the subset from which we take random (x_i, y_i, z_i) .

5.3 (ε, δ) -approximation

Definition 5.3.1 $((\varepsilon, \delta)$ -approximation). A random algorithm gives a (ε, δ) -approximation for value v if the output X satisfies:

$$P_r(|X - v| \leq \varepsilon v) \geq 1 - \delta.$$

Theorem 5.3.2. Let $X_1 \dots X_n$ be independent and identically distributed indicator variables. Let $\mu = E(X_i)$, $Y = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^m X_i}{m}$. If $m \geq \frac{3 \ln(\frac{2}{\delta})}{\varepsilon^2 \mu}$, then $P_r(|Y - \mu| \geq \varepsilon \mu) \leq \delta \implies Y$ is (ε, δ) -approximation for μ .

Proof 5.3.3.

$$X = \sum_{i=1}^n X_i$$

$$E(X) = mE(x_i) = m\mu$$

$$m \geq \frac{3 \ln(\frac{2}{\delta})}{\varepsilon^2 \mu}$$

$$\begin{aligned} P_r(|Y - \mu| \geq \varepsilon \mu) &= P_r\left(\left|\frac{X}{m} - \mu\right| \geq \varepsilon \mu\right) \\ &= P_r\left(\frac{1}{m} |X - E(X)| \geq \frac{1}{m} \varepsilon E(x)\right) \\ &\stackrel{\text{Chernoff}}{\leq} 2e^{-\frac{\varepsilon^2 E(x)}{3}} \\ &= 2e^{-\frac{\varepsilon^2 \mu m}{3}} \\ &\leq 2e^{-\frac{\varepsilon^2 \mu}{3} \cdot \frac{3 \ln(\frac{2}{\delta})}{\varepsilon^2 \mu}} = \delta. \end{aligned}$$

■

Back to example 1:

$$E(Y) = \frac{\pi}{4}, \delta = \frac{1}{1000} \text{ (99.9\% sure)}, \varepsilon = \frac{1}{10000}$$

$$\implies M = \frac{3 \ln\left(\frac{2}{\frac{1}{1000}}\right)^4}{\pi\left(\frac{1}{10000}\right)^2} \approx 29106.$$

Problems for MC (Monte-Carlo):

- rare events, e.g. $X \sim \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 10^{100} \\ 1 - 10^{-20} & 10^{-20} \end{pmatrix}$, $E(X) = 10^{80}$

5.4 DNF counting

CNF: $(X_{i_1} \vee \overline{X_{i_2}} \vee X_{i_4}) \wedge (X_{i_1} \vee \overline{X_{i_3}}) \wedge \dots$

DNF: $(\overline{X_{i_1}} \wedge X_{i_2} \wedge \overline{X_{i_4}}) \vee \dots$ - easy to determine if solution exists - this is the negation of the above CNF.

Question: number of solutions to a given DNF?

Observation: CNF F has a solution $\iff$ DNF $\neg F$ has less than 2^n solutions, n is number of samples.

ALG_1(F):

$x = 0$

for i **in** $\text{range}(1, m+1)$:

$x_1 \dots x_n$ uniformly random from $\{0,1\}^n$

if $F(x_1 \dots x_n) = 1$:

$x+ = 1$

return $\frac{x}{m} \cdot 2^n$

$$X_i = \begin{cases} 1 & : F(x_{i1}, \dots, x_{in}) = 1 \\ 0 & : \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

$$Y = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^m X_i}{m}$$

We attempt to achieve an (ε, δ) -approximation for the number of solutions of the DNF using Y .

$$E(X_i) = P_r(X_i = 1) = \frac{\text{number of solutions of } F}{2^n}$$

$$E(Y) = \frac{\text{number of solutions of } F}{2^n} = \frac{c(F)}{2^n}$$

For Y to be an (ε, δ) -approximation we need $m \geq \frac{3 \ln(\frac{2}{\delta})}{\varepsilon^2 E(X)} = \frac{3 \ln(\frac{2}{\delta})}{\varepsilon^2} \cdot \frac{2^n}{c(F)}$ according to the previous theorem.

$c(F)$ very small $\rightarrow m$ exponentially big $\rightarrow$ not good (we need a lot of samples).

Definition 5.4.1.

$$SC_i = \{(a_1 \dots a_n) \in \{0,1\}^n \text{ such that } F = F_1 \vee \dots \vee F_t, F_i(a_1 \dots a_n) = 1\}.$$

Suppose F_i is a conjunction of l_i different variables $a_{i_1}, \dots, a_{i_{l_i}}$ (or their ne-

gations). If $F_i(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 1$, this uniquely determines $a_{i_1}, \dots, a_{i_{l_i}}$ and so $|SC_i| = 2^{n-l_i}$

$$U = \{(i, a) \mid i \in \{1, 2, \dots, t\}, a \in SC_i\}$$

$$|U| = \sum_{i=1}^t |SC_i| \text{ (space smaller than } \{0, 1\}^n \text{)}$$

$$S = \{(i, a) \in U \mid a \in SC_i, a \notin SC_j \ 1 \leq j < i\}$$

$$|S| = c(F) \text{ (each solution appears exactly once in } S \text{).}$$

ALG_2(F) :

$$x = 0$$

for i **in** $\text{range}(1, m+1)$:

(i, a) **uniformly random from** U

if $(i, a) \in S$:

$$x+ = 1$$

return $\frac{x}{m} \cdot |U|$

In order to check whether $a \in S$, we need to check whether there is such i so that $a \in SC_i$ and $a \notin SC_j \ j = 1 \dots i-1$. To check whether or not $a \in SC_i$ takes $O(n)$ time, so the it takes $O(tn)$ time to check whether $a \in S$.

We can implement uniform random selection from U with $O(1)$ time complexity so the total time complexity is $O(t \cdot n \cdot m)$.

Theorem 5.4.2. For $m = \left\lceil \frac{3t \ln\left(\left(\frac{2}{\delta}\right)\right)}{\varepsilon^2} \right\rceil$ algorithm returns (ε, δ) -approximation in $O\left(\frac{t^2 n \ln\left(\frac{2}{\delta}\right)}{\varepsilon^2}\right)$ time.

The time complexity follows immediately from the previous analysis. Define

$$X_i = \begin{cases} 1 : i\text{-th selection is in } S \\ 0 : \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

$$Y = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^m X_i}{m}$$

We have $c(F) = |S|$, $E(Y) = \frac{|S|}{|U|}$ and so

$$P_r(Y|U| - c(F) > \varepsilon c(F)) = P_r(|U|(Y - E(Y)) > \varepsilon |U|E(Y)) \leq \delta$$

if

$$m \geq \frac{3 \ln \left(\frac{2}{\delta} \right)}{\varepsilon^2 E(Y)}.$$

We have

$$E(Y) = \frac{|S|}{|U|} \geq \frac{1}{t}$$

This is because SC_i contains at most $c(F)$ elements for every i and $|S| = c(F)$.

So it suffices to take

$$m \geq \frac{3 \ln \left(\frac{2}{\delta} \right) t}{\varepsilon^2} \geq \frac{3 \ln \left(\frac{2}{\delta} \right)}{\varepsilon^2 E(Y)}.$$

In new space $E(Y)$ much larger $\implies m$ smaller.

Poglavje 6

Polynomials

Let $\mathbb{F}$ be a field.

$\mathbb{F}$ can be $\mathbb{R}, \mathbb{C}, \mathbb{Z}_p, \mathbb{F}_{p^n}$.

$\mathbb{F}[x_1 \dots x_n]$ algebra of polynomials with values $x_1 \dots x_n$.

$f \in \mathbb{F}[x_1 \dots x_n]$

$\deg(f[x_1 \dots x_n]) := \deg(f[x \dots x])$.

Theorem 6.0.1. Let $p(x_1 \dots x_n) \in \mathbb{F}[x_1 \dots x_n]$ have the degree $d \geq 0$ and $p \neq 0$. Let $S \subset \mathbb{F}$ be finite. If $(r_1 \dots r_n)$ is uniformly at random element from S^n . Then $P_r(p(r_1 \dots r_n) = 0) \leq \frac{d}{|S|}$.

Proof 6.0.2. Induction on n .

$n = 1$:

$$p(x) = (x - z_1)(x - z_2) \dots (x - z_j)q(z)$$

Fact: number of zeros $\leq$ degree

$$P_r(p(r_1) = 0) = \frac{\text{number of zeros in } S}{|S|} \leq \frac{d}{|S|}.$$

$n - 1 \rightarrow n$:

rewrite p :

$$p(x_1 \dots x_n) = \sum_{i=0}^j x^i p_i(x_2 \dots x_n)$$

for some $j \leq d$

$$\begin{aligned} P_r(p(r_1 \dots r_n) = 0) &= P_r(p(r_1 \dots r_n) = 0 \mid p_j(r_2 \dots r_n) = 0) \cdot P_r(p_j(r_2 \dots r_n) = 0) \\ &\quad + P_r(p(r_1 \dots r_n) = 0 \mid p_j(r_2 \dots r_n) \neq 0) \cdot P_r(p_j(r_2 \dots r_n) \neq 0) \\ &\leq 1 \cdot \frac{d-j}{|S|} + \frac{j}{|S|} \cdot 1 \\ &= \frac{d}{|S|}, \end{aligned}$$

because

$$\begin{aligned} P_r(p_j(r_2 \dots r_n) = 0) &\leq \frac{d-j}{|S|} \quad (\deg(p_j) \leq d-j \text{ because otherwise } \deg(p) > d) \\ P_r(p(r_1 \dots r_n) = 0 \mid p_j(r_2 \dots r_n) \neq 0) &\leq \frac{j}{|S|} \quad (\text{WHY???}). \end{aligned}$$

■

Problem:

Let $A, B, C \in \mathbb{F}^{n \times n}$, is $A \cdot B = C$?

Computing $A \cdot B$:

- school-book algorithm: $O(n^3)$,
- Strassen algorithm: $O(n^{2.807\dots})$,
- galactic algorithm: $O(n^{2.372\dots})$ - has enormous constants.

`RAND_ABC(A, B, C):`

`for  $i$  in range(1,  $k+1$ ):`

`$x$  uniformly at random from  $\{0,1,2\}^n$`

`if  $A \cdot (B \cdot x) \neq C \cdot x$ :`

`return false`

```
return true
```

The time complexity of the above algorithm is $O(kn^2)$.

If $A \cdot B = C$, algorithm returns true.

If $A \cdot B \neq C$:

$$\begin{aligned} P_r(ABx = Cx) &= P_r((AB - C)x = 0) \\ &= P_r\left(\|(AB - C)x\|^2 = 0\right) \stackrel{\text{Poly}}{\leq} \frac{2}{3}. \end{aligned}$$

$\|(AB - C)x\|^2$ - polynomial in $x_1 \dots x_n$ of degree 2.

If $A \cdot B \neq C$, then algorithm return false with probability at least $1 - \left(\frac{2}{3}\right)^k$.

Problem:

1-factor (perfect matching) in bipartite graphs.

$|V(g)| = 2n$.

Represent G with $n \times n$ matrix $Z = (Z_{ij})_{i,j=1}^n$. Let X be a random $n \times n$ matrix with entries from $\{1, 2, \dots, 2n\}$

$$Z_{ij} = \begin{cases} X_{ij} : & \text{if } a_i b_j \in E(G) \\ 0 : & \text{else} \end{cases}$$

$$\begin{aligned} \det Z &= \sum_{\pi \in S_n} \text{sign}(\pi) Z_{1,\pi(1)} \dots Z_{n,\pi(n)} \\ &= \sum_{\substack{\pi \in S_n \\ \pi \text{ 1-factor}}} \text{sign}(\pi) X_{1,\pi(1)} \dots X_{n,\pi(n)}. \end{aligned}$$

$\det Z \neq 0$ for some $X \iff G$ has 1-factor.

```
Rand_1factor(G):
```

```
  construct polynomial det Z with variables  $x_{11}, \dots, x_{nn}$ 
```

```
  for  $i$  in range(1,  $k+1$ ):
```

```
     $r \leftarrow$  uniformly at random from  $\{1, 2, \dots, 2n\}^{n^2}$ 
```

```
    compute  $d = \det Z(r_{11} \dots r_{nn})$ 
```

```
    if  $d \neq 0$ :
```

```
        return true  
    return false
```

Complexity: $k \cdot$ computing determinant: $O(n^3)$ (Gaussian elimination).
or apply approximation algorithm:

- if G has no 1-factor it always returns false,
- if G has 1-factor, it returns true with probability at least $1 - \left(\frac{n}{2n}\right)^k = 1 - \left(\frac{1}{2}\right)^k$

Poglavje 7

Random graphs

7.1 $G(n,p)$ model

G is a random Erdős-Rény graph if it has n vertices and each pair of vertices is connected with probability p .

Example. $G\left(5, \frac{1}{2}\right)$.

$$E(\text{edges in } G \text{ from } G(n,p)) = \sum_{1 \leq i < j \leq n} E(X_{ij}) = \binom{n}{2}p.$$

$$X_{ij} = \begin{cases} 1 : & \text{if } i \text{ and } j \text{ have edge} \\ 0 : & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

p can be function of n .

Y_v : degree of v .

By observing the handshaking lemma and using linearity of the expected value and the fact that all vertices have the same expected degree, we get $E(Y_v) = (n-1)p$.

Definition 7.1.1.

We say that a random graph has some property almost surely (A.S.) if $P_r(G \in G(n,p) \text{ has property}) \xrightarrow{n \rightarrow \infty} 1$.

Claim 7.1.2.

Let p be constant. Then $G \in G(n, p)$ has diameter 2 A.S.

Proof 7.1.3.

Let $u, v \in V(G)$

$$X_w = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } uw \in E(G) \text{ in } vw \in E(G) \\ 0 & \text{else} \end{cases}$$

$$P_r(X_w = 1) = p^2$$

$$P_r(X_w = 0 \text{ for all } w \neq u, v) = (1 - p^2)^{n-2}.$$

$$\begin{aligned} P_r(G \text{ has diameter } > 2) &= P_r(X_w = 0 \text{ for all } w \notin u, v \text{ for some non-adjacent } u, v) \\ &\leq P_r(X_w = 0 \text{ for all } w \notin u, v \text{ for some } u, v) \\ &\leq \binom{n}{2} (1 - p^2)^{n-2} \xrightarrow{n \rightarrow \infty} 0 \end{aligned}$$

$\binom{n}{2}$ - polynomial, $e^{\dots}$ - exponent. ■

$$p = f(n)$$

$$\frac{1}{n}, \frac{1}{n^3}, \frac{\log n}{n}$$

Theorem 7.1.4. (without proof)

Let p be a function of n , let $G \in G(n, p)$:

- $np < 1 \implies G$ A.S. disconnected with connected components of size $O(\log n)$,
- $np = 1 \implies G$ A.S. has 1 large component of size $O\left(n^{\frac{2}{3}}\right)$,
- $np = c > 1 \implies G$ A.S. has giant component of size dn , $d \in (0, 1)$,
- $np \leq (1 - \varepsilon) \ln n \implies G$ A.S. disconnected with isolated vertices,
- $np > (1 - \varepsilon) \ln n \implies G$ A.S. connected.

Theorem 7.1.5.

Let $np = \omega(n) \ln(n)$ for $\omega(n) \rightarrow \infty$. Then $\text{diam}(G) = \Theta\left(\frac{\ln n}{\ln(np)}\right)$ for G in $G(n, p)$ A. S.

Lemma 7.1.6.

Let $S \subset V(G)$, $|S| = cn$ for $c \in (0,1]$ and $v \notin S$. Denote by $N_S(v)$ the number of neighbors of v in S . Then $cnp(1 - \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}}) \leq N_S(v) \leq cnp(1 + \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}})$ A.S.

Proof 7.1.7. (Lemma):

Because each vertex in S is adjacent to v with probability p , we have $E(N_S(v)) = c \cdot n \cdot p$. Define $\delta = \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}}$

$$\begin{aligned} P_r(|N_S(v) - cnp| \geq \delta cnp) &\stackrel{\text{Chernoff}}{\leq} 2e^{-\frac{\omega^{-\frac{2}{3}} cnp}{3}} \\ &= 2e^{-\frac{cnp}{3\omega(n)^{\frac{2}{3}}}} \\ &= 2e^{-\frac{c\omega(n)^{\frac{1}{3}} \ln(n)}{3}} \xrightarrow{n \rightarrow \infty} 0. \end{aligned}$$

We can also see that $n \cdot 2e^{-\frac{cnp}{3\omega(n)^{\frac{2}{3}}}} \xrightarrow{n \rightarrow \infty} 0$. ■

Proof 7.1.8. (Theorem):

Let G be a random graph and let v be any vertex in G . Let N_i be the random variable which maps to the set of all vertices in G whose distance from v is equal to i .

$$|N_0| = 1$$

Every vertex that is at distance i from v , is a neighbor of a vertex in N_{i-1} which isn't contained in N_j for $j < i$. So N_i is a subset of the set of neighbors of N_{i-1} which aren't contained in N_j for $j < i$. By the previous lemma, every vertex in N_{i-1} has at most $n \cdot p \cdot (1 + \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}})$ neighbors which aren't contained in such N_j A. S. Because the sets of neighbors of different vertices in N_i are independent variables, we have that previously described set of neighbors of vertices in N_{i-1} has at most $|N_{i-1}| \cdot n \cdot p \cdot (1 + \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}})$ vertices A. S. and so $|N_i| \leq |N_{i-1}| \cdot n \cdot p \cdot (1 + \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}})$ A. S.

Let's select $k = \frac{\log(\frac{n}{3})}{\log(n \cdot p \cdot (1 + \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}}))} = \log_{np(1 + \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}})} \frac{n}{3} = \Theta\left(\frac{\ln(n)}{\ln(np)}\right)$.

$N_{\leq k} = N_1 \cup \dots \cup N_k$. We then have almost surely:

$$\begin{aligned}
 |N_{\leq k}| &\leq \sum_{i=0}^k (np(1 + \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}}))^i \\
 &= \frac{(np(1 + \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}}))^{k+1} - 1}{np(1 + \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}}) - 1} \\
 &< \frac{np(1 + \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}})^{k+1}}{\frac{1}{2}np(1 + \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}})} \\
 &= 2np(1 + \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}})^k \\
 &\stackrel{k}{=} 2 \cdot \frac{n}{3} - \text{haven't covered all} \\
 &\implies \text{diam}(G) > k \text{ bound from below.}
 \end{aligned}$$

Now let k be such that $\sum_{i=0}^{k-1} |N_i| \leq \frac{n}{2}$, $\sum_{i=0}^k |N_i| > \frac{n}{2}$.

By the selection of k and by selecting $S = V(G) \setminus N_{\leq i}$, we have $|S| \geq \frac{n}{2}$ and so by previous lemma we have $\frac{1}{2}np(1 - \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}}) \cdot |N_{i-1}| \leq |N_i|$ A. S. Thus we have almost surely:

$$\begin{aligned}
 n &\geq \sum_{i=0}^k |N_i| \\
 &\geq \sum_{i=0}^k \left(\frac{1}{2}np(1 - \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}}) \right)^i \\
 &= \frac{\left(\frac{1}{2}np(1 - \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}}) \right)^{k+1} - 1}{\frac{1}{2}np(1 - \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}}) - 1} \\
 &\geq \left(\frac{1}{2}np(1 - \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}}) \right)^k / \ln
 \end{aligned}$$

Which gives us $\frac{\ln n}{\ln(np)} \approx \frac{\ln n}{\ln\left(\frac{1}{2}np(1 - \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}})\right)} \geq k$.

$\implies w \in S'$.

Number of neighbors in N_k A.S. ≥ 1 ,

$$|N_k| \geq \left(\frac{1}{2}np(1 - \omega^{-\frac{1}{3}}) \right)^k \approx c \cdot n$$

$\implies \text{diam}(G) = k + 1$ A.S. (WHY?????) ■

7.1.1 Scale free property

Suppose G is a random graph on n vertices in the most general way - the set of edges is a random variable with any distribution. Let $p_n(k)$ be the random variable denoting the expected proportion of vertices of degree k . Suppose $p(k) = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} p_n(k)$ exists for every k . Then we say that the distribution has the scale-free property if

$$\lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} p(k)k^\gamma = C$$

for some constants γ and C , that is $p(k) \sim k^{-\gamma}$ or $\log(p(k)) \sim -\gamma \cdot \log k$.

Internet: $\gamma \approx 3.42$,

protein reactions: $\gamma \approx 2.89$.

7.2 Barabási-Albert Model

B.A. model.

Start with m nodes.

Grow:

- add node v ,
- add m edges from v (to u) in such way that $P(v \sim u) = \frac{\deg(u)}{\sum_x \deg(x)}$.

The selection of new neighbors can be done in such way that we uniformly at random select one of the existing edges and the uniformly at random select one of its vertices.

Theorem 7.2.1.

B.A. model has scale free property, in particular

$$p_k = \frac{2m(m+1)}{k(k+1)(k+2)}.$$

Definition 7.2.2.

$p_n(k)$: expected proportion of degree k vertices in graph with n vertices,

$$p_k := \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} p_n(k).$$

Proof 7.2.3.

$p_n(k) \cdot n$: expected number of degree k vertices,

Let X_k be the number of vertices with degree k when we have n vertices and let Y_k be the number of vertices who had degree k at n vertices and degree $k + 1$ at $n + 1$ vertices. By the law of total expected value we have

$$E[Y_k] = E[Y_k | X_k = 0]P(X_k = 0) + E[Y_k | X_k = 1]P(X_k = 1) \\ + \dots + E[Y_k | X_k = n]P(X_k = n)$$

Under the assumption that $X_k = l$, we have $Y_k = I_1 + \dots + I_l$ where $I_a = 1$ if the a -th vertex with degree k is selected as the neighbor of the new vertex and 0 otherwise. Then

$$E[Y_k | X_k = l] = l \cdot E[I_a] = l \cdot P(I_a = 1) = l \cdot \frac{k}{\sum_u \deg(u)}.$$

Plugging that into the equation for total expected value, we get

$$E[Y_k] = E[X_k] \frac{k}{\sum_u \deg(u)} = p_n(k) \cdot n \cdot \frac{k}{\sum_u \deg(u)} \cdot m.$$

By the handshaking lemma we have $\sum_u \deg(u) = 2|E| = 2m(n - m)$ (assuming we start with m independent vertices) and so

$$E[Y_k] = p_n(k) \frac{nk}{2(n - m)}.$$

$p_{n+1}(k) \cdot (n + 1) = p_n(k) \cdot n - p_n(k) \cdot \frac{nk}{2(n - m)} + p_n(k - 1) \cdot \frac{n(k - 1)}{2(n - m)}$, where

$p_n(k) \cdot n$: degree $k \rightarrow k$,

$p_n(k) \cdot \frac{nk}{2(n - m)}$: $k \rightarrow k + 1$,

$p_n(k - 1) \cdot \frac{n(k - 1)}{2(n - m)}$: $k - 1$ or less $\rightarrow k$ (for $k > m$; for $k = m$ this summand is equal to 1 because we add a vertex who had degree zero and now has degree 1).

Assuming without proof that $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} (p_{n+1}(k) - p_n(k))n = 0$ when sending $n \rightarrow \infty$ we get:

$$p_k = -p_{k-1} \cdot \frac{k}{2} + p_{k-1} \cdot \frac{k-1}{2} = \frac{k-1}{k+2} p_{k-1}.$$

For degree m :

$$(n+1) \cdot p_{n+1}(m) = p_n(m) \cdot n - p_n(m) \cdot \frac{nm}{2(n-m)} + 1$$

Similarly to before, by sending $n \rightarrow \infty$ we get $p_m = -\frac{m}{2} \cdot p_m + 1$ and so:

$$\begin{aligned} p_m &= \frac{2}{m+2} \\ \implies p_{m+1} &= \frac{2}{m+2} \cdot \frac{m}{m+3} \\ \implies p_{m+2} &= \frac{2m(m+1)}{(m+2)(m+3)}. \end{aligned}$$

Using induction we get

$$p_k = \frac{2m(m+1)}{k(k+1)(k+2)}.$$

■

Poglavje 8

Markov chains

Ω : finite set (of states).

Definition 8.0.1 (Markov chain).

(Discrete time) Markov chain is a sequence of random variables $X = X_0, X_1, X_2 \dots$ with image Ω and properties:

- $P(X_{i+1} = x \mid X_i = x_i, X_{i-1} = x_{i-1} \dots X_0 = x_0) = P(X_{i+1} = x \mid X_i = x_i)$ - Markov property,
- $P(X_{i+1} = x \mid X_i = y) = P(X_1 = x \mid X_0 = y)$ - time is homogenous.

Example.

$$\Omega = \mathbb{Z}_5$$

$$P(X_{i+1} = x + 1 \mid X_i = x) = \frac{1}{2}$$

$$P(X_{i+1} = x - 1 \mid X_i = x) = \frac{1}{2}.$$

Definition 8.0.2 (Transition matrix).

$$\Omega = \{x_1 \dots x_n\}$$

$$p_{ij} = P(X_{t+1} = x_j \mid X_t = x_i)$$

$$\begin{bmatrix} p_{11} & \dots & p_{1n} \\ \vdots & & \vdots \\ p_{n1} & \dots & p_{nn} \end{bmatrix}.$$

Definition 8.0.3 (Transition graph).

Edge between states i and j exists if $p_{ij} > 0$.

P is stochastic matrix:

$$p_{ij} \in [0,1]$$

$$\sum_j p_{ij} = 1 \text{ (row sum).}$$

We choose beginning state randomly.

$$q(0) = (q_1(0) \dots q_n(0))$$

$$P(X_0 = i) = q_i(0).$$

$$\text{Let } q(t) = (q_1(t) \dots q_n(t))$$

$$P(X_t = i) = q_i(t).$$

$$\text{It holds: } q(t) = q(t-1) \cdot P = q(0) \cdot P^t.$$

$$\begin{bmatrix} 0 & \frac{1}{2} & 0 & 0 & \frac{1}{2} \\ \frac{1}{2} & 0 & \frac{1}{2} & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & \frac{1}{2} & 0 & \frac{1}{2} & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & \frac{1}{2} & 0 & \frac{1}{2} \\ \frac{1}{2} & 0 & 0 & 0 & \frac{1}{2} \end{bmatrix}$$

$$q(0) = (1, 0, 0, 0, 0)$$

$$q(1) = (1, \frac{1}{2}, 0, 0, \frac{1}{2})$$

$$q(2) = (\frac{1}{2}, 0, \frac{1}{4}, \frac{1}{4}, 0)$$

$$\vdots$$

Definition 8.0.4.

- Distribution π is stationary if $\pi = \pi \cdot P$,
- f_{ij} : probability that $X_t = x_j$ for some t assuming $X_0 = x_i$,
- h_{ij} : expected number of steps needed to get to state x_j starting in x_i

(hitting time),

- $N(i, t, q(0))$: expected number of times we visit x_i after t steps starting with distribution $q(0)$,
- $\forall f_{ij} > 0 \iff$ transition graph is strongly connected $\iff$ we say the chain is irreducible,
- M.C. is aperiodic if there is no $c \in \{2, 3, 4 \dots\}$ such that all lengths of cycles in the transition graph are divisible by c .

Theorem 8.0.5.

Let X be finite irreducible M.C. Then:

- a) there exists unique stationary distribution $\pi = (\pi_1 \dots \pi_n)$,
- b) $f_{ii} = 1, h_{ii} = \frac{1}{\pi_i}$,
- c) $\lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} \frac{N(i, t, q(0))}{t} = \pi_i$ - approaches π regardless of $q(0)$,
- d) if X is aperiodic: $\lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} q(0) \cdot P^t = \pi$.

Example.

$$P = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & \frac{1}{2} & \dots & \frac{1}{2} \\ \frac{1}{2} & 0 & \dots & 0 \\ \vdots & & & \vdots \\ \dots & & \frac{1}{2} & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$\pi = \left(\frac{1}{n} \dots \frac{1}{n}\right)$$

$$h_{i,i} = n$$

$$n = h_{i,i} = 1 + \frac{1}{2}h_{i-1,i} + \frac{1}{2}h_{i+1,i}, \quad h_{i-1,i} = h_{i+1,i}$$

$$n - 1 = h_{i-1,i}$$

$$E(\text{steps around}) \leq h_{0,1} + h_{1,2} + \dots + h_{n-1,n} \leq n(n-1).$$

8.1 2-SAT

Recall: k-SAT:

$$F = C_1 \wedge \cdots \wedge C_m$$

$$C_i = X_{i1} \vee \cdots \vee X_{ik}.$$

3-SAT: NP complete.

Algorithm:

```
def rand2SAT(F):
    b0 = (b00 ... bn0)
    for i in range(t):
        if F(bi) = 1:
            return True
        Cl ← clause that is False
        xj ← uniformly at random from xl1 and xl2
        bi+1 = (b0i ...  $\overline{b_j^i}$  ... bni)
    if F(bt) = 1:
        return True
    return False
```

Theorem 8.1.1.

If $k = 8n^2$, then $P(\text{rand2SAT} = \text{True} \mid \text{correct answer is True}) \geq \frac{3}{4}$.

Proof 8.1.2.

Let $a = (a_1 \dots a_n)$ be a correct solution.

Say we are at i -th step and we have selected $C_l = l_1 \vee l_2$ that is false where l_1 and l_2 are functions of x_{l1} and x_{l2} . Let $\text{val}(x_{l1})$ and $\text{val}(x_{l2})$ be the values of x_{l1} and x_{l2} for which l_1 and l_2 are true. Then we must have $a_{l1} = \text{val}(x_{l1})$ or $a_{l2} = \text{val}(x_{l2})$ because C_l has to be true when evaluated in a . And because C_l is false when evaluated in b^i is false, then we must have both $b_{l1}^i \neq \text{val}(x_{l1})$ and $b_{l2}^i \neq \text{val}(x_{l2})$. This means that either $b_{l1}^{i+1} = \text{val}(x_{l1})$ or $b_{l2}^{i+1} = \text{val}(x_{l2})$.

All of this together gives us for $j \geq 1$

$$P(\text{distance of } b^{i+1} \text{ to } a \text{ is } j-1 \mid \text{distance of } b^i \text{ to } a \text{ is } j) \geq \frac{1}{2}.$$

We define an auxiliary Markov chain

$$P = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & \dots & \dots & 0 \\ \frac{1}{2} & 0 & \frac{1}{2} & 0 & \dots & \dots & 0 \\ 0 & \frac{1}{2} & 0 & \frac{1}{2} & \dots & \dots & 0 \\ \vdots & & & & & & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \dots & \dots & \frac{1}{2} & 0 & \frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & \dots & \dots & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

This is a finite irreducible Markov chain and so by theorem it has a unique stationary distribution

$$\pi = (\frac{1}{2n}, \frac{1}{n} \dots \frac{1}{n}, \frac{1}{2n}).$$

By theorem we know that $h_{i,i} = \frac{1}{\pi_i} = n$ for $i = 1, 2 \dots n-1$ and $h_{0,0} = h_{n,n} = 2n$.

We also know that for every $i \in \{1, \dots, n-1\}$ we have $n = h_{i,i} = 1 + \frac{1}{2}h_{i+1,i} + \frac{1}{2}h_{i-1,i}$. For every $i \in \{2, \dots, n-2\}$ we have $h_{i+1,i} = h_{i-1,i}$ and so $h_{i+1,i} = n-1$. We know that $h_{n,n-1} = 1$ and $2n = h_{0,0} = 1 + h_{1,0}$, so $h_{1,0} = 2n-1$. Thus for every $i \leq n-1$ we have $h_{i+1,i} \leq 2n$ and so

$$h_{n,0} \leq h_{n,n-1} + \dots + h_{1,0} \leq 2n^2.$$

We could show that because

$$P(\text{distance of } b^{i+1} \text{ to } a \text{ is } j-1 \mid \text{distance of } b^i \text{ to } a \text{ is } j) \geq \frac{1}{2},$$

the expected number of steps to reduce the Hamming distance from n to 0 is less than $h_{n,0}$. This proves that

$$E(\text{steps in algorithm to reach correct solution}) = E(Z) \leq 2n^2$$

and so

$$\begin{aligned} &P(\text{algorithm hasn't reached correct solution after } 8n^2 \text{ steps}) \\ &= P(Z > 8n^2) \stackrel{\text{Markov}}{\leq} \frac{E(Z)}{8n^2} \leq \frac{1}{4}. \end{aligned}$$

■

8.2 Generating a uniformly random element of a set

Suppose we have a set Ω from which we want to sample uniformly. If the set is small, we can just explicitly list all elements and select one at random. But if we have a very large set we can't do that. Here we develop an approach to an approximation of uniform sampling in such large sets.

Let Ω be a set and let G be a undirected graph with vertices on Ω . We form M. C:

$$P_{x,y} = \begin{cases} \frac{1}{M} : & \text{if } x \neq y \wedge x \sim y \\ 0 : & \text{if } x \neq y \wedge x \not\sim y \\ 1 - \frac{|N(x)|}{M} : & \text{if } x = y \end{cases}$$

where we choose some $M \geq \max_{v \in \Omega} |N(v)|$.

If G is connected, then M.C. is irreducible.

Let's prove that $\pi = (\frac{1}{|\Omega|} \dots \frac{1}{|\Omega|})$ is a stationary distribution of P .

$$\begin{aligned} (\pi P)_x &= \sum_y \pi_y P_{y,x} \\ &= \sum_{y \in N(x)} \frac{1}{M} \cdot \frac{1}{|\Omega|} + \frac{1}{|\Omega|} \left(1 - \frac{|N(x)|}{M} \right) = \frac{1}{|\Omega|} = \pi_x. \end{aligned}$$

This means that if we walk on the Markov chain long enough, we end up in state x with probability approximately $\pi_x = \frac{1}{|\Omega|}$. This gives us an approximation of uniform sampling.

Example.

Let $G = (V, E)$ be a graph, finding largest independent set ($\forall u, v : u \approx v$) is NP-complete. Let's try sampling a uniformly random independent set- Let $\Omega = \{\text{independent sets}\}$ and let Γ be a graph with Ω for vertices where to independent sets are connected if they differ by exactly one vertex. Graph Γ is obviously connected because for every independent sets A and B we have a walk where we delete vertex by vertex from A and then add vertex by vertex from B . We define a random walk on Γ as follows:

Let X_0 be an arbitrary independent set. Suppose we have $X_i = U$. Then we form X_{i+1} as follows:

- pick uniformly at random $v \in V(G)$,
- if $v \in U$ then $X_{i+1} = U \setminus \{v\}$,
- if $U \cup \{v\}$ is independent then $X_{i+1} = U \cup \{v\}$,
- else $X_{i+1} = U$.

In Γ independent set U is adjacent only to vertices of form to $U \cup \{v\}$ and $U \setminus \{v\}$. The walk will go from U to one of these neighbors only if we select v . Because we select a vertex at random, the probability of that happening is $\frac{1}{|V|}$. The process will never go from U to any independent set not adjacent to U and the probability of the process staying at U is precisely $1 - \frac{N(U)}{|V|}$. Thus if we select $M = |V|$, this walk is precisely the Markov chain P we defined above, meaning for every $U \in \Omega$ we have

$$\lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} P(X_t = u) = \frac{1}{|\Omega|}$$

which gives us an approximation of uniform sampling of independent sets.

8.3 Metropolis algorithm

Suppose we have a set Ω and we want to sample elements with a chosen distribution π from Ω . We do so by constructing a connected graph G with

vertices on Ω and defining a random walk on this graph which corresponds to an irreducible Markov chain with stationary distribution π . Then by walking around G for long enough time, we get an approximation of sampling with distribution π . Let's define the following Markov chain:

$$P_{x,y} = \begin{cases} \frac{1}{M} \cdot \min\left(1, \frac{\pi_y}{\pi_x}\right) : & \text{if } x \neq y \wedge x \sim y \\ 0 : & \text{if } x \neq y \wedge x \not\sim y \\ 1 - \sum_{z \in N(x)} \frac{1}{M} \cdot \min\left(1, \frac{\pi_z}{\pi_x}\right) : & \text{if } x = y \end{cases}$$

where we choose some $M \geq \max_{v \in \Omega} |N(v)|$. Now let's prove that π is indeed the stationary distribution of this irreducible Markov chain:

$$\begin{aligned} (\pi P)_x &= \sum_y \pi_y P_{y,x} = \sum_{y \in N(x)} \pi_y \frac{1}{M} \min\left(1, \frac{\pi_x}{\pi_y}\right) + \pi_x \left(1 - \sum_{y \in N(x)} \frac{1}{M} \min\left(1, \frac{\pi_y}{\pi_x}\right)\right) \\ &= \sum_{y \in N(x), \pi_y < \pi_x} \pi_y \frac{1}{M} \cdot 1 + \sum_{y \in N(x), \pi_y \geq \pi_x} \pi_y \frac{1}{M} \frac{\pi_x}{\pi_y} + \pi_x \\ &\quad - \sum_{y \in N(x), \pi_y < \pi_x} \pi_x \frac{1}{M} \frac{\pi_y}{\pi_x} - \sum_{y \in N(x), \pi_y \geq \pi_x} \pi_x \frac{1}{M} \cdot 1 \\ &= \pi_x. \end{aligned}$$

Example.

$$\Omega = \mathbb{Z} \cap [-1000, 1000]$$

$$\pi \sim e^{-\frac{(x-\mu)^2}{2\delta}}$$

```

X0 arbitrary
for i = in range(1, m):
    y <- uniformly from {Xi - 1, Xi + 1}
    M <- uniformly from [0, 1]
    if M ≤  $\frac{\pi(y)}{\pi(x)}$ :
        Xi+1 = y
    else:
        Xi+1 = Xi
return Xm

```

Example.

Find maximum of a positive function f .

Use metropolis algorithm to sample proportional to f .

Note: all I need to know is ratios $\frac{f(y)}{f(x)}$.

Back to independent sets.

$$G = (V, E)$$

Ω = independent sets.

$$\lambda \in (1, \infty)$$

$$\pi(u) \sim \lambda^{|u|}$$

$$\pi(u) = \frac{\lambda^{|u|}}{\sum_{v \text{ independent set}} \lambda^{|v|}}.$$

How to calculate the sum?

No problem: only need proportions.

X_0 : arbitrary independent set.

$X_i \rightarrow X_{i+1}$:

- we pick $v \in V$ uniformly at random,
- if $v \in X_i \implies$
 - $X_{i+1} = X_i \setminus \{v\}$ with probability $\frac{1}{\lambda} = \min\{1, \frac{\pi_v}{\pi_x}\},$
 - $X_{i+1} = X_i$ with probability $1 - \frac{1}{\lambda},$
- if $v \in X_j$ and $X_i \cup \{v\}$ is independent $\implies X_{i+1} = X_i \cup \{v\},$
- otherwise $X_{i+1} = X_i.$

Example.

$$\text{Bayes: } P(A \mid B) = \frac{P(A \cap B)}{P(B)} = \frac{P(B|A)P(A)}{P(B)}.$$

$B \leftarrow$ machine is giving values, e.g. $y_1 = 0.05, y_2 = -0.1, y_3 = 0.07, y_4 = 3.$

We believe $B \sim N(\mu, 0.05).$

$$\mu = \text{laplacian}(0, 0.01).$$

$$P(\mu \mid B) = \frac{e^{\frac{|\mu|}{0.01}} e^{-\sum \frac{(x_i - \mu)^2}{0.05}}}{\int \dots}.$$

Integral is difficult to calculate.

Sample μ with Metropolis algorithm.

8.4 M.C. for 1-factor in bipartite graphs

G regular graph

$$|A| = |B|.$$

How to find 1-factor?

Augmenting paths.

Let M be (suboptimal) matching.

If we find $s - t$ path, we switch edges and get bigger matching.

Starting point.

G d -regular graph.

Graph $G = (A \cup B, E)$, M suboptimal matching.

- Add s and add directed edges to vertices in A that are not matched with weight d ,
- add t and add directed edges to vertices in B that are not matched with weight d ,
- orient edges in M from B to A that weight $d - 1$,
- orient edges in $E \setminus M$ from B to A that weight 1 ,
- we add edge from t to s that weight $(|A| - |M|)d$.

Observation:

- for each vertex x : $\deg^-(x) = \deg^+(x)$ (out weights = in weights),
- if $|A| > |M|$, then graph is eulerian $\implies$ there is an augmenting path.

How to find $s - t$ path?

Do a random walk.

Expected time to get from s to t is $h_{s,t}$

$$\frac{1}{\pi(s)} = h_{s,s} = h_{s,t} + 1.$$

Lemma 8.4.1.

Let X be a M.C. defined as a random walk on directed (weighted) graph with $\deg^-(x) = \deg^+(x)$ for each x . Then the stationary distribution is

$$\pi = \left[\frac{\deg^+(x_i)}{|E|} \right]_{i=1}^n.$$

w_{ij} : weight from i to j .

Proof 8.4.2.

$$\pi P = \pi \left[\frac{w_{ij}}{\deg^+(x_i)} \right]_{i,j=1}^n = \left[\frac{\sum_j w_{ji}}{|E|} \right]_{i=1}^n = \left[\frac{\deg^-(x_i)}{|E|} \right]_{i=1}^n = \left[\frac{\deg^+(x_i)}{|E|} \right]_{i=1}^n. \quad \blacksquare$$

$$h_{s,s} = \frac{1}{\pi_s} \leq \frac{|E|}{\deg^+(s)} \leq \frac{3(|A|-|M|)d+|M|(d-1)+(|A|-|M|)d+|M|(d-1)}{(|A|-|M|)d} \leq \frac{4|A|}{|A|-|M|}.$$

Expected time to find augmenting path $\leq \frac{4|A|}{|A|-|M|}$.

$$|A| = n$$

Expected time to find 1-factor $\leq \sum_{i=1}^{n-1} \frac{4n}{n-i} = 4n \sum_{i=1}^{n-1} \frac{1}{i} \leq 4n(1 + \ln n)$ - in $O(n \log n)$.

Network centrality

Degree as measure - natural idea.

Use M.C: walk randomly on the network, those that are visited more often are more important.

Pagerank.

Let A be the adjacency matrix of G .

$$P_{ij} = \alpha \frac{A_{ij}}{\deg_i} + (1 - \alpha) \frac{1}{n};$$

α : normal random walk,

$1 - \alpha$: jump to any.

$$\alpha = 0.85.$$

Poglavje 9

Randomized incremented constructions (RIC)

Observation:

Let S be a set of n distinct elements.

Let $X_1 \dots X_n$ be a random permutation of the elements.

Let $S_i = \{X_1 \dots X_i\}$.

$$P(X_i = \min(S_i)) = \frac{1}{i}.$$

$$Y = |\{j \in \{1 \dots n\} \mid j = \text{minimal of } S_j\}|$$

$$Y = Y_1 + \dots + Y_n$$

$$Y_j = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } j = \min S_j \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

$$E(Y) = \sum_{i=1}^n E(Y_i) = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{1}{i} \text{ in } O(\log n).$$

`Alg()`:

`$X_1 \dots X_n$  = random permutation of  $S$`

`$min = X_1$`

`for  $i$  in range( $1, n+1$ ):`

`if  $X_i < min$ :`

`print( $\backslash$ sn{HA})`

`$min = X_i$`

We get $O(\log n)$ „HA“ printed.

Incremental construction (IC).

Input $S = \{s_1 \dots s_n\}$.

We will build structures $DS(S_i)$:

$DS(S_1 \rightarrow \dots \rightarrow DS(S_n))$.

$DS(S_n)$ will help us give answer.

Randomized: permute S at the beginning.

9.1 Quicksort as RIC

S : set of elements we want to order.

$X_1 \dots X_n$: random permutation of S .

$S_i = \{X_1 \dots X_i\}$.

S_i splits $\mathbb{R}$.

Define $DS(S_i)$:

- save intervals: each interval will be saved by endpoints,
- for each interval we will be saving its points,
- for each X_j , $j > i$ we will save in which interval it is,
- for each left point of the interval we will save the right point.

QuicksortRIC(S):

start of DS(Si)

$I = [(-\infty, \infty)]$

$P[(-\infty, \infty)] = S$

for each X_i :

$Int(X_i) = (-\infty, \infty)$

$Next(-\infty) = \infty$

end of DS(Si)

for i in range(1, n + 1):

$I_i = Int(X_i) = (X_j, X_k)$ **# I_i splits interval (X_j, X_k)**

```

 $I_{i1} = (X_j, X_i)$ 
 $I_{i2} = (X_i, X_k)$ 
for  $X_l \neq X_i, X_l \in P(I)$ :
    add  $X_l$  to  $P(I_{i1})$  or  $P(I_{i2})$  depending on  $X_l < X_i$  or  $X_l > X_i$ 
 $Next(X_j) = X_i$ 
 $Next(X_i) = X_k$ 
return  $[Next(-\infty), Next(Next(-\infty)) \dots]$ 

```

Similarity to quicksort: splitting intervals.

Analysis:

for set i , we need $O(|P(I_i)|)$,

$E(|P(I_i)|) = ?$

e.g.

if $x_4 = a_4$:

if $x_4 = a_2$:

$P(X_i = a_j) = \frac{1}{i}, j \in \{1, 2 \dots i\}$.

Expected value of steps in iteration i

$\sum_{j=1}^i \frac{1}{i} (P((a_{j-1}, a_j)) + P((a_j, a_{j+1}))) \leq \frac{1}{i} 2(n-i) \leq \frac{2n}{i}$

$$\begin{aligned}
 E(\text{number of steps in QuicksortRIC}) &\leq \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{2n}{i} \\
 &\leq 2n(1 + \log n) \rightarrow \text{in } O(n \log n).
 \end{aligned}$$

9.2 Linear programming

Task: maximize $f(x_1 \dots x_n) = c_1x_1 + \dots + c_dx_d$.

Constraints:

$$\begin{aligned} a_{11}x_1 + \dots + a_{1d}x_d &\leq b_1 \\ \vdots \\ a_{n1}x_1 + \dots + a_{nd}x_d &\leq b_n. \end{aligned}$$

Geometric interpretation.

Cases:

- infeasible region
- unbounded
- multiple solutions.

Alg:

- simplex algorithm worst case $O(2^n)$,
- interior point method (polynomial algorithm).

Seidel's algorithm:

running in expected $O(n)$ time when d is constant.

One dimension.

$$\begin{aligned} \max \quad & cx \\ & a_1x \leq b_1 \\ & \vdots \\ & a_nx \leq b_n, \end{aligned}$$

where n is number of constraints.

- a_i positive: $(-\infty, \frac{b_i}{a_i}] \quad (x_i \leq \frac{b_i}{a_i})$,
- a_i negative: $[\frac{b_i}{a_i}, \infty) \quad (x_i \geq \frac{b_i}{a_i})$.

$a_i \neq 0$.

Alg:

$$R = \min_i \{ \frac{b_i}{a_i}; a_i > 0 \},$$

$$L = \max_i \{ \frac{b_i}{a_i}; a_i < 0 \},$$

if $L > R$: program infeasible,

else:

if $c > 0$: return R ,

if $c < 0$: return L .

2-dim: assume general position.

$$\max c_1x + c_2y$$

$$a_{11}x + a_{12}y \leq b_1$$

$$\vdots$$

$$a_{n1}x + a_{n2}y \leq b_n$$

$$x \leq M \text{ or } x \geq -M$$

$$y \leq M \text{ or } y \geq -M.$$

$\leq, \geq$ depending on c_1, c_2 .

Notation:

h_i : halfspace defined by $a_{i1}x + a_{i2}y \leq b_i$,

m_i : added halfspaces, defined by $X, Y \leq M$ or $\geq -M$,

l_i : line that bounds.

Alg:

- first randomly permute h_i ,

- $H_i = \{m_1, m_2, h_1 \dots h_i\}$,
- $v_i \in \cap H_i$ optimal solution after i constraints,
- $v_0 = (\pm M, \pm M)$,
- inductively add h_i .

Cases:

$$\text{if } v_{i-1} \in h_i \implies v_i = v_{i-1},$$

$$\text{if } v_{i-1} \notin h_i \implies v_i \in h_i:$$

$$a_{i1}x + a_{i2}y = b_i$$

$$a_{i1} \text{ or } a_{i2} \neq 0, \text{ e.g. } a_{i1};$$

$$x = \frac{b_i - a_{i2}y}{a_{i1}}.$$

Insert x in all constraints $\implies$ linear program in 1-dim, i ($i-1$?) constraints
 $\implies$ get v_i in $O(i)$.

Analysis:

- worst case: $\sum_{i=1}^n O(i) = O(n^2)$,
- expected: $E(X) = \sum_{i=1}^n E(X_i)$,
- X_i = running time of i -th iteration,
- $X_i = \begin{cases} O(1) : & \text{case 1} \\ O(i) : & \text{case 2} \end{cases}$
- $P(\text{case 2}) \leq \frac{2}{i}$ - optimal point on at most 2 lines,
- $E(X) \leq \sum_{i=1}^n O(1) \cdot 1 + O(i) \cdot \frac{2}{i} = O(n)$.

d -dim

- constraints define half-spaces,
- boundary is hyperplane ($d - 1$ dimensional),

- general position: intersection of $d - i$ hyperplanes is i dimensional, intersection of $d + 1$ hyperplanes is $\emptyset$.

Alg:

first add $X_i \leq M$ or $X_i \geq -M$ depending on c_i ,

random permutation $(h_1 \dots h_n)$,

$$H_i = \{m_1 \dots m_d, h_1 \dots h_i\},$$

$$v_0 \in \cap \partial m_i,$$

inductively add h_i :

$$v_{i-1} \in h_i \implies v_i = v_{i-1},$$

$$v_{i-1} \notin h_i \implies \text{we need to solve LP in } d - 1 \text{ dimensions with } i \text{ constraints } (O(i) \text{ expected}),$$

$$P(v_{i-1} \notin h_i) \leq \frac{d}{i},$$

$$E(X) \leq \sum_{i=1}^n O(1) + \frac{d}{i} O(i) = O(n).$$

X : running time.

Careful implementation runs in $O(d!n) \implies$ very useful for low dimensions.

Problem: let P be convex polygon given by ordered set of vertices

$$y = a_i x + b_i.$$

Find largest disc embeddable in P .

Input: $P_1 \dots P_n$,

output: $(s_1, s_2), r$.

$\max r$

$$r = \left| \frac{s_2 - a_i s_1 - b_i}{\sqrt{a_i^2 + 1}} \right|$$

$$\frac{s_2 - a_i s_1 - b_i}{\sqrt{a_i^2 + 1}} \geq r \text{ - line above } P$$

$$- \frac{s_2 - a_i s_1 - b_i}{\sqrt{a_i^2 + 1}} \leq -r \text{ - line below } P$$

$\Rightarrow$ LP in 3 dim.

Note: $\frac{s_2 - a_i s_1 - b_i}{\sqrt{a_i^2 + 1}}$ positive if (s_1, s_2) above the line, negative otherwise.

Poglavje 10

Hashing

A hash function is a random function,

$$h : U \rightarrow \{0, 1 \dots n - 1\} = M,$$

U - universe,

$$u = |U|,$$

$$m = |M|.$$

Ideally we would like for h to be as completely random: $P(h(x) = t) = \frac{1}{m}$.

Standard application.

Let $V \subset U$, $|V| \ll |U|$.

We would like to quickly answer if $x \in V$ for every $x \in U$.

Solution:

- take $h : U \rightarrow M$,
- make a table $T = [0, 1 \dots n - 1]$,
- for $v \in V$:

$$T[h(v)] = 1,$$

$$T[y] = 0 \ \forall y \in h(V).$$

- Let $x \in V$. Check

- if $T[h(x)] = 1 : x \in V$,
- else: $x \notin V$.

Note: this is not OK: h not injective.

For $x \in U$, tell if $x \in V$ in $O(1)$.

$h = \text{SHA256} : U \rightarrow \{0, 1\}^{256}$.

Approach:

- design a family of hash functions,
- study collisions $P_h(h(x) = h(y))$,
- H needs to be „simple“.

Bad example: $H =$ all functions from U to M storing $h \in H$ would take $|U| \log_2 |M|$ bits.

Definition 10.0.1. A family of hash functions to be universal if for $\forall x, y \in U, x \neq y, h \in H : P(h(x) = h(y)) \leq \frac{1}{m}$ (probability of collision).

k-independent if $\forall x_1 \dots x_k \in U$ pairwise different, $\forall t_1 \dots t_k \in M$
 $P_r(h(x_i) = t_i \forall i) \leq \frac{1}{m^k}$.

Example.

$U = \{0, 1, 2, 3\}$,

$M = \{0, 1\}$,

$H = \{h_0, h_1, h_2\}$,

$h_0 : \{0 \rightarrow 0, 1 \rightarrow 0, 2 \rightarrow 1, 3 \rightarrow 1\}$,

$h_1 : \{0 \rightarrow 0, 1 \rightarrow 1, 2 \rightarrow 0, 3 \rightarrow 1\}$,

$h_2 : \{0 \rightarrow 0, 1 \rightarrow 1, 2 \rightarrow 1, 3 \rightarrow 0\}$.

$P(h(0) = h(2)) = \frac{2}{3} > \frac{1}{2}$ - not universal.

Why universal?

U, V, M

H universal: $\forall x, y : P(h(x) = h(y)) \leq \frac{1}{m}$.

X : number of collisions of V .

$$E(X) = E\left(\sum_{x,y \in V, x \neq y} X_{x,y}\right)$$

$$X_{x,y} = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } h(x) = h(y) \\ 0 & \text{else} \end{cases}$$

$$E(X) = \sum_{x,y \in V, x \neq y} E(X_{x,y}) \leq \binom{n}{2} \cdot \frac{1}{m}.$$

$$U, V, M, H$$

$$T[0 \dots m-1]$$

$$\forall v \in V$$

$$T[h(v)] = v.$$

For $x \in V$ we check $T[h(x)]$ if equals x ,

for $y \in U \setminus V$, $T[h(y)] \neq y$.

For $z \in V$, $T[h(z)]$ can happen $\neq z$ if h has collisions in V .

Lemma 10.0.2.

Let $m \geq n^2$ and H universal. Then the probability that h has no collisions in $V \geq \frac{1}{2}$.

Proof 10.0.3.

X : number of collisions

$$E(X) \leq \binom{n}{2} \cdot \frac{1}{m} < \frac{n^2}{2} \cdot \frac{1}{n^2} = \frac{1}{2}$$

$$P(X \geq 1) \stackrel{\text{Markov}}{\leq} \frac{E(X)}{1} = \frac{1}{2}$$

$$P(X = 0) \geq \frac{1}{2}. \quad \blacksquare$$

Example (Universal hash family).

$$U = \{0, 1 \dots u-1\} \text{ (bits } \equiv \text{ numbers)}$$

$$M = \{0, 1 \dots m-1\}.$$

Define: let $p \geq u$, p prime number.

Define for $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}_p$, $a \neq 0$.

$$h_{a,b} = (ax + b) \bmod m$$

$$ax + b \in \mathbb{Z}_p$$

$$H = \{h_{a,b} \mid a, b \in \mathbb{Z}_p, a \neq 0\}.$$

Proof 10.0.4.

$$P(h_{a,b}(x) = h_{a,b}(y)) = ?$$

x, y fixed.

For any a, b denote

$$ax + b = t_x$$

$$ay + b = t_y :$$

$$a \sqcup + b \in \mathbb{Z}_p.$$

$$\begin{bmatrix} x & 1 \\ y & 1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} t_x \\ t_y \end{bmatrix}$$

$$\det \begin{bmatrix} x & 1 \\ y & 1 \end{bmatrix} \neq 0, \text{ because } x \neq y$$

$$\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} x & 1 \\ y & 1 \end{bmatrix}^{-1} \begin{bmatrix} t_x \\ t_y \end{bmatrix}.$$

For each t_x, t_y there exists 1 a, b mapping to t_x, t_y .

$$h_{a,b}(x) = h_{a,b}(y) \iff t_x = t_y \pmod{m}.$$

This holds for $p \left(\lceil \frac{p}{m} \rceil + 1 \right)$

p : choice of t_y

$$t_x = t_y + km$$

$$P(h_{a,b}(x) = h_{a,b}(y)) \leq \frac{p(\lceil \frac{p}{m} \rceil - 1)}{p(p-1)} \leq \frac{\frac{p-1}{m}}{p-1} = \frac{1}{m}. \quad \blacksquare$$

Function random for 2 elements, fixed for ≥ 3 .

Higher k-independent: better.

10.1 Chaining

$$V, U, h : U \rightarrow V.$$

Answer $x \in V$ in $O(1)$.

$$T[0 \dots m-1]$$

$$n = |V|$$

$$\forall v \in V:$$

$$h(v_1) = h(v_2) \rightarrow [v_1 \ v_2 \dots] \text{ - linked list.}$$

Now:

$$x \in U.$$

Check if x is in list at $T[h(x)]$.

Check takes $O(\text{length of a list at } h(x)) = 1 + \text{number of collisions with } x$.

X_x : number of collisions with x .

$E(X_x) = \sum_{y \in V} E(X_{x,y}) \leq n \cdot \frac{1}{m}$ if hash function is universal.

$\alpha = \frac{n}{m}$: load factory (how many elements in 1 place).

$E(X_x) = 1$

$E(\max_x X_x) \neq \max_x E(X_x) = 1$.

Theorem 10.1.1. Assume we throw n balls into n bins uniformly at random. Then with high probability the fullest contains $\theta\left(\frac{\log n}{\log(\log n)}\right)$ balls.

Proof 10.1.2.

$$\stackrel{?}{\leq} \frac{3 \ln n}{\ln \ln n}.$$

Let X_j be the number of balls in bin j .

$P\left(X_j \geq \frac{3 \ln n}{\ln \ln n}\right) = P(\text{there exists subset } S \text{ of balls thrown to bin } j).$

$|S| = k$

$$\begin{aligned} & P\left(\cup_{S \text{ balls, } |S|=k} \text{balls from } S \text{ are thrown to bin } j\right) \\ & \leq \sum_{S \text{ balls, } |S|=k} P(\text{balls from } S \text{ are thrown to } j) \\ & = \binom{n}{k} \left(\frac{1}{n}\right)^k \\ & \leq \frac{n^k}{k!} \cdot \frac{1}{n^k} \\ & = \frac{1}{k!} \stackrel{10.1}{\leq} \frac{e^k}{k^k} \\ & = \left(\frac{e \ln n}{3 \ln \ln n}\right)^{\frac{3 \ln n}{\ln \ln n}} \\ & \leq e^{\frac{3 \ln n}{\ln \ln n} \cdot (\ln \ln \ln n - \ln \ln n)} \\ & = e^{-3 \ln n + \frac{\ln \ln \ln n \cdot (\ln n \cdot 3)}{\ln \ln n}} \stackrel{10.2}{\leq} e^{-3 \ln n + \ln n} \\ & = \frac{1}{n^2}; \end{aligned}$$

$$e^x = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \frac{k^i}{i!} \geq \frac{k^k}{k!}, \quad (10.1)$$

$$\frac{\ln \ln \ln n}{\ln \ln n} \rightarrow 0. \quad (10.2)$$

$P(\text{at least for 1 bin } j \geq k) = n \cdot \frac{1}{n^2} = \frac{1}{n}.$ ■

U, V, H hash family, $h : U \rightarrow M$

$v \in V$

$n = |V|$

max load $O\left(\frac{\log n}{\log(\log n)}\right).$

Perfect hashing: we would like

- $O(1)$ lookup (worst case)
- $O(n)$ size of table.

10.2 2 level hashing

Input: V

$n = |V|.$

Take hash function from universal family with $m = |M| = n.$

Count total collisions $X.$

$$E(X) \leq \binom{n}{2} \cdot \frac{1}{m} \leq \frac{n}{2}$$

$$P(x \geq n) \stackrel{\text{Markov}}{\leq} \frac{1}{2}$$

$\implies$ by repeating sample h we can guarantee

- for each $i \in M$ we store at $T[i]$ another hash table of size C_i^2 , where $C_i = \text{number of elements of } V, \text{ hashed in } i,$
- we sample h_i from universal hash family with $M_i = C_i^2.$

$P(h_i \text{ has no collisions}) \geq \frac{1}{2}$ (by lemma).

We resample if h_i has collisions.

$E(\text{sampling } h_i) = 2.$

Construction time:

- step 1: $O(n)$
- step 2: $O(C_1 + \dots + C_n) = O(n);$

together $O(n)$.

Lookup time: $O(1)$ (evaluating $h(x)$ and $h_{h(x)}(x)$).

Space: $O(C_1^2 + \dots + C_n^2)$ in $O(n)$.

By first step:

$$n > \text{number of collisions of } h = \sum_{i=1}^n \binom{C_i}{2} = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{C_i^2 - C_i}{2}$$

$$\implies \sum_{i=1}^n C_i^2 < 2n + \sum_{i=1}^n C_i = 3n.$$

10.3 The power of 2 choices

Variant: placing n balls in n bins but for each ball we choose d bins uniformly at random and put the ball in bin with minimal load.

Theorem 10.3.1. The above process with $d \geq 2$ results in at most maximum load of $O\left(\frac{\ln(\ln n)}{\ln d}\right)$.

Proof 10.3.2. (sketch).

b_i = upper bound of the number of bins with load at most i .

Height of a ball = the number of balls in the bin, where the ball is placed.

$P(\text{a ball has height at least } i+1) \leq \left(\frac{b_i}{n}\right)^d$ (choose d times independently).

X^{i+1} : number of balls with height $\geq i+1$.

$$X^{i+1} = \sum_{j=1}^n X_j^{i+1}$$

X_j^{i+1} : indicator variable of j -th ball having height $i+1$.

$$E(X^{i+1}) \leq \sum_{j=1}^n \left(\frac{b_i}{n}\right)^d = n \cdot \left(\frac{b_i}{n}\right)^d.$$

Chernoff bound: with high probability $X^{i+1} \leq 2n \left(\frac{b_i}{n}\right)^d$.

$X^{i+1} \geq$ number of bins with load at least $i+1$.

Define (set)

$$b_{i+1} = \sum_{n^{d-1}} b_i^d$$

$$b_4 = \frac{n}{4}$$

$$b_{i+4} = \frac{n}{2^{2 \cdot d^i - \sum_{j=0}^{i-1} d^j}}$$

$$i = 0: b_4 = \frac{n}{2^{2^1}} = \frac{n}{4}$$

$i \rightarrow i + 1$:

$$\begin{aligned}
 b_{i+4} &= \frac{2 \cdot b_{i+3}}{n^{d-1}} \\
 &\stackrel{IH}{=} \frac{2 \cdot \left(\frac{n}{2^{2 \cdot d^i - \sum_{j=0}^{i-1} d^j}} \right)^d}{n^{d-1}} \\
 &= \frac{2^1 \cdot n^d}{n^{d-1} \cdot 2^{2 \cdot d^{i+1} - \sum_{j=1}^i d^j}} \\
 &= \frac{n}{2^{2 \cdot d^{i+1} - \sum_{j=0}^i d^j}}.
 \end{aligned}$$

In particular: $b_{i+4} \leq \frac{n}{2^{d^i}} < 1$ when?

$$n < 2^{d^i}$$

$$\log_2 n < d^i$$

$$\log_d \log_2 n < i$$

$$\implies \text{for } i = \frac{\log(\log_2 n)}{\log d} \text{ is } b_i < 1 \implies \text{no bins with load } > \frac{\log(\log_2 n)}{\log d}. \quad \blacksquare$$

Application:

We sample 2 hash functions $h_1, h_2 : U \rightarrow M$.

For element $v \in V$ we insert in $T[h_1(v)]$ or $T[h_2(v)]$ depending on which list is shorter.

Max load in $O(\log(\log n))$.

10.4 Cockoo hashing

Idea: use 2 hash functions but allow moving elements later.

We want to have at most 1 element at each entry in the table.

Inserting:

- if empty: insert,
- if not empty: push other element to its other choice, repeat recursively.

Questions:

- how many do I need to move,
- how many elements can I insert before problems?

We can think of positions in the table as vertices and elements of V as edges. $|V|$ edges are inserted uniformly at random (if ideal hash function) $\implies$ random graph.

Erdős-reny model: $G_{n,m} \approx G_{n,p}$ if $m = \binom{n}{2} \cdot p$ (A.S. properties).

If $np < 1 - \varepsilon$: all connected components have size at most $O(\log n)$, components are trees or at most 1 cycle per component, expected size of a component is $O(1)$.

Fact: if graph has at most 1 cycle per component, then inserting can be done and takes at most $2 \cdot (\text{size of component})$ time (each edge changes direction at most 2 times).

Theorem 10.4.1.

Let $n = |U|$, $h_1, h_2 : U \rightarrow M$, $m = |M| = 2 \cdot (1 + \varepsilon) \cdot n$, then with high probability cuckoo hashing works correctly with

- inserting time:
 - $O(\log n)$ time worst case,
 - $O(1)$ expected case,
- space: $O(n)$,
- lookup time: $O(1)$.

Dynamically add element:

$$m = 2 \cdot (1 + \varepsilon) \cdot n$$

$$p = \frac{m'}{\binom{n'}{2}} = \frac{2m'}{n'(n'-1)}$$

$$pn' = \frac{2m'}{(n'-1)} = \frac{2n'}{2(1+\varepsilon)n'} = \frac{1}{1+\varepsilon} < 1 + \varepsilon'$$

10.5 Bloom filter

Take k hash functions $h_1 \dots h_k$ at random, $h_i : U \rightarrow M, T[0 \dots m - 1]$.

$V \subset U$, for every element $v \in V$ set $T[h_i(v)] = 1 \forall i \in \{1 \dots k\}$.

False positives: $x \notin V$ such that $T[h_i(x)] = 1 \forall i \in \{1 \dots k\}$.

For each $T[j]$ $P(T[j] = 0) = \left(1 - \frac{1}{m}\right)^n \approx e^{-\frac{nk}{m}}$;

k : each hash function, n : for each v .

Now

$P(T[h_i(x)] = 1 \forall i, \forall x \notin V) \approx \left(1 - e^{-\frac{nk}{m}}\right)^k = f(k)$ - probability of a false positive.

$\left(1 - e^{-\frac{nk}{m}}\right)$: 1 position.

Searching for a minimum:

$$f'(k) = 0$$

$$\implies k = \ln 2 \cdot \frac{m}{n}$$

$$f\left(\ln 2 \cdot \frac{m}{n}\right) = \left(\frac{1}{2}\right)^{\ln 2 \frac{m}{n}} \approx 0.6185 \frac{m}{n}$$

$\implies$ we choose m such that $0.6185 \frac{m}{n}$ small (in $O(n)$)

$\implies$ calculating $k = \ln 2 \cdot \frac{m}{n}$

$\implies$ hashing with space $O(n)$

$\implies$ checking in $O(1)$

$\implies$ probability of error small.

10.6 Linear probing

$V \subset U, h : U \rightarrow M, T[0 \dots m - 1]$.

- Insert $v \in V$: check $T[h(v)], T[h(v) + 1], T[h(v) + 1] \dots$ until finding empty space, then insert it.
- Check if $x \in V$ by checking $T[h(x)] \stackrel{?}{=} x, T[h(x) + 1] \stackrel{?}{=} x \dots$ until finding x or finding empty.

$x \in U$

X : number of steps to check if $x \in V$.

$E(X) = ?$

Block of size 2^l is bad if it has more than $2^l \cdot \frac{2}{3}$ values.

Set $\frac{n}{m} = \frac{1}{3}$.

Expected number of elements hashed in block of size 2^l is $\frac{1}{3} \cdot 2^l$.

$$\begin{aligned} E(X) &= \sum_{i=0}^n P(X = i) \cdot i \\ &\leq \sum_{j=0}^{\log_2 n} P(2^{j-1} < X \leq 2^j) \cdot 2^j \\ &\leq \sum_{j=0}^{\log_2 n} P(\text{block above } h(x) \text{ of size } 2^j \text{ is bad}) \cdot c \cdot 2^j. \end{aligned}$$

c : not aligned?

$P(\text{block of size } 2^j \text{ is bad}) = P(Y > \frac{2}{3} \cdot 2^j) = P(Y - \frac{1}{3} \cdot 2^j > \frac{1}{3} \cdot 2^j);$

Y : number of elements hashed to the block.

$E(Y) = \frac{1}{3} \cdot 2^j$

$E(X) \stackrel{\text{Chernoff}}{\leq} e^{-k \cdot 2^j}$; Chernoff: sum of independent indicators.

$E(X) < O(1) \cdot \sum_{j=0}^{\log_2 n} 2^j \cdot e^{-k \cdot 2^j}$ in $O(1)$

$\implies$ checking in $O(1)$.

Chernoff: if ideal hash function; 5 independent is enough.

Poglavje 11

Data streams

Stream of values

$$\sigma = a_1, a_2 \dots a_n$$

a_i : tokens

$$a_i \in [n]$$

m : length of stream (very large).

Definition 11.0.1. $f_i = |\{j \mid a_j = i\}|$

We could be interested in

- number of different token,
- frequency of some token,
- frequent tokens: $\{i \in [n] \mid f_i \geq \frac{m}{10}\}$
- moments: $\|f\|^2 = \sum_{i \in [n]} f_i^2$
- $\vdots$

We want to use memory in $O(\text{poly}(\log n, \log m)) \ll O(n, m)$.

Most problems cannot be solved precisely, hence we search for (ε, δ) -approximation.

Algorithm $A(G)$:

- initialization,

- incremental steps,
- finalization

using randomness (oblivious stream - it doesn't know which randomly, e.g. we can choose stream that „attacks algorithm“).

11.1 Count min sketch

For a given $i \in [n]$ (token) at the end of stream give f_i .

$A(\sigma, \varepsilon, \delta)$:

Init: $k = \lceil \frac{2}{\varepsilon} \rceil, t = \lceil \log_2 \left(\frac{1}{\delta} \right) \rceil$.

We choose t hash functions $h_1 \dots h_t : [n] \rightarrow M = [k] = \{1 \dots k\}$ from a universal family H .

Let $C[0 \dots t-1][0 \dots k-1]$ be 2-dim (hash) table

$C[i][j] = 0 \forall i, j$.

Updates:

for every token $a_i \in \sigma$ we update C

for $j = 0, 1 \dots t-1$:

$C[i][h_i(a_j)] += 1$

Output: we asked $a \in [n]$ return $\overline{f}_a = \min_{0 \leq j \leq t-1} C[j][h_j(a)]$;

min collisions.

Theorem 11.1.1.

For every $a \in [n]$ it holds

$$f_a \leq \overline{f}_a \leq f_a + \varepsilon m$$

with probability at least $1 - \delta$.

Notice: space needed $O(t \cdot k \cdot \log m) = O\left(\frac{2}{\varepsilon} \cdot \log_2 \left(\frac{1}{\delta}\right) \log m\right)$.

Proof 11.1.2.

$$\forall i \in [t] : C[i][h_i(a)] \geq f_a \implies \overline{f}_a \geq f_a.$$

Fix a .

Let $X_i = C[i][h_i(a)] - f_a$ excess of i -th count.

$$I_{x,y}^i = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } h_i(x) = h_i(y) \\ 0 & \text{else} \end{cases}$$

$$X_i = \sum_{y \in [n], y \neq a} I_{x,y}^i \cdot f_y.$$

$$\begin{aligned} E(X_i) &= \sum_{y \in [n], y \neq a} E(I_{x,y}^i) \cdot f_y \\ &\stackrel{11.1}{\leq} \sum_{y \in [n], y \neq a} \frac{1}{k} \cdot f_y \\ &\leq \frac{1}{n} \cdot m \\ &\stackrel{11.2}{\leq} \frac{m}{2}; \end{aligned}$$

$$\text{hash function from universal family,} \quad (11.1)$$

$$P(X_i \geq \varepsilon m) \stackrel{\text{Markov}}{\leq} \frac{\varepsilon m}{2\varepsilon m} = \frac{1}{2} \text{ for fixed } i. \quad (11.2)$$

$$\begin{aligned} P(\overline{f_a} - f_a \geq \varepsilon m) &\leq P(X_i \geq \varepsilon m \ \forall i) \\ &\stackrel{\text{indep.}}{=} \left(\frac{1}{2}\right)^t \leq \delta. \end{aligned}$$

■

11.2 Estimating the number of distinct elements

We want $d = |\{i \in [n], f(i) > 0\}|$.

Define for $x \in \mathbb{N}$:

$\text{zeros}(x) = \max\{i \mid 2^i \text{ divides } x\}$: number of zeros at the end in binary representation of x .

Alg(σ):

Init:

h : random hash function from 2-independent family.

recall: $[n]$: all possible elements of σ .

$h : [n] \rightarrow [n]$
 $\text{unlog? } n = 2^{n'}$
 $z = 0$
Update :
 $a_i \in \sigma$
if $\text{zeros}(h(a_i)) \geq z$:
 $z = \text{zeros}(h(a_i))$
Output :
 $\bar{d} = 2^{z+\frac{1}{2}}$

Define $\forall a \in [n], r \in \mathbb{N}$

$$X_{r,a} = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } \text{zeros}(h(a)) \geq r \\ 0 & \text{else} \end{cases}$$

$$Y_r = \sum_{a \in \sigma} X_{r,a}.$$

Let $\bar{z}$ be z at the end of the algorithm: $\bar{d} = 2^{\bar{z}+\frac{1}{2}}$.

Notice:

$$Y_r > 0 \iff \bar{z} \geq r$$

$$Y_r = 0 \iff \bar{z} < r.$$

Lemma 11.2.1.

$$P(X_{r,a} = 1) = \frac{1}{2^r},$$

$$P(X_{r,a_1} = 1 \wedge X_{r,a_2} = 1) = \frac{1}{(2^r)^2}.$$

Proof 11.2.2.

$$P(X_{r,a} = 1) = P(\text{zeros}(h(a)) \geq r) = \frac{2^{n'-r}}{2^{n'}} = \frac{1}{2^r};$$

$2^{n'}$: all,

$2^{n'-r}$: fixed.

$$P(X_{r,a_1} = 1 \wedge X_{r,a_2} = 1) \stackrel{\text{indep.}}{=} P(X_{r,a_1} = 1) \cdot P(X_{r,a_2} = 1) = \frac{1}{(2^r)^2}. \quad \blacksquare$$

$P(\bar{d} \geq 3d)$ small?

$$E(Y_r) = \sum_{a \in \sigma} E(X_{a,r}) = \sum_{a \in \sigma} \frac{1}{2^r} = \frac{d}{2^r}$$

Let $k \in \mathbb{N}$ be such that $2^{k+\frac{1}{2}} \geq 3d > 2^{k-\frac{1}{2}}$.

$$\begin{aligned}
 P(\bar{d} > 3d) &\leq P\left(2^{\bar{z}-\frac{1}{2}} > 2^{k-\frac{1}{2}}\right) \\
 &= P\left(\bar{z} + \frac{1}{2} > k - \frac{1}{2}\right) \\
 &= P(\bar{z} \geq k) \\
 &\stackrel{\text{lemma}}{=} P(Y_k > 0) \\
 &\stackrel{\in \mathbb{N}}{=} P(Y_k \geq 1) \\
 &\stackrel{\text{Markov}}{\leq} \frac{E(Y_k)}{1} = \frac{d}{2^k} \\
 &\leq \frac{k}{3d} \cdot 2^{\frac{1}{3}} = \frac{\sqrt{2}}{3}.
 \end{aligned}$$

$P(\bar{d} \leq \frac{d}{3})$ small?

Let $l \in \mathbb{N}$ be such that $2^{l-\frac{1}{2}} \leq \frac{d}{3} < 2^{l+\frac{1}{2}}$.

$$\begin{aligned}
 P\left(\bar{d} < \frac{d}{3}\right) &\leq P\left(2^{\bar{z}+\frac{1}{2}} < 2^{l+\frac{1}{2}}\right) \\
 &= P\left(\bar{z} + \frac{1}{2} < l + \frac{1}{2}\right) \\
 &= P(\bar{z} \leq l) \\
 &\stackrel{\text{lemma}}{=} P(Y_l = 0) \\
 &= P\left(Y_l - \frac{d}{2^l} < -\frac{d}{2^l}\right) \\
 &\leq P\left(|Y_l - \frac{d}{2^l}| \geq \frac{d}{2^l}\right) \\
 &\stackrel{\text{Chebisev}}{\leq} \frac{\text{Var}(Y_l)}{\left(\frac{d}{2^l}\right)^2} \\
 &\leq \frac{l}{3d} \cdot 2^{\frac{1}{3}} = \frac{\sqrt{2}}{3};
 \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
Var(Y_l) &= Var\left(\sum_{a \in \sigma} X_{a,l}\right) \\
&\stackrel{\text{h 2-indep.}}{=} \sum_{a \in \sigma} Var(X_{a,l}) \\
&= \sum_{a \in \sigma} E(X_{a,l}^2) - E(X_{a,l})^2 \\
&\stackrel{E(X_{a,l}) \in \{0,1\}}{\leq} \sum_{a \in \sigma} E(X_{a,l}) \\
&= \frac{d}{2^l}.
\end{aligned}$$

$$P\left(\frac{d}{3} < \bar{d} < 3d\right) \geq 1 - \frac{2\sqrt{3}}{3}.$$

We use algorithm k -times, getting $\bar{d}_1 \dots \bar{d}_k$ (we need independent hash functions).

Define: $\bar{d} = median(\bar{d}_1 \dots \bar{d}_k)$.

$$\begin{aligned}
P(\bar{d} \geq 3d) &= P\left(\text{at least } \left\lceil \frac{k}{2} \right\rceil \bar{d} - s \text{ are } \geq 3d\right) \\
&= P\left(X \geq \frac{k}{2}\right) \leq e^{-ck},
\end{aligned}$$

c : some constant,

$$X = \sum_{i=1}^k X_i,$$

$$X_i = \begin{cases} 1 & : \text{ if } \bar{d}_i \geq 3d \\ 0 & : \text{ else } \end{cases}$$

$$P\left(\bar{d} \leq \frac{d}{3}\right) = \dots$$

Poglavje 12

Interactive proofs

A protocol between P prover and V verifier for function f .

Both share x ,

r : randomness used,

P, V : algorithms,

$$out(V, x, r, P) = \begin{cases} 1 : V \text{ agrees that } f(x) = y \\ 0 : \text{else} \end{cases}.$$

Goal: minimal communication, minimal work for V .

Completeness:

- for every $x \in D$ (domain)
- $P(out(V, x, r, P) = 1) \geq 1 - \delta_c$ for some $\delta_c \in [0, 1)$.

Soundness:

- for every x such that $f(x) \neq y$
- $P(out(V, x, r, P') = 1) \leq \delta_s$ for every $P', \delta_s \in [0, 1)$.

Computational soundness:

- soundness,
- P' computationally bounded.

Zero-knowledge:

- informally: verifier learns nothing behind the claim.

Example.

Input: G graph,

$$f(G) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } G \text{ hamiltonian} \\ 0 & \text{else} \end{cases}$$

$$G \rightarrow P \xrightarrow{m_1: (v_1 \dots v_n)} V \leftarrow G,$$

V : verifies that m_1 is hamiltonian cycle.

Proof: $O(n)$.

Verifier com. $O(n)$.

Example.

Input: A, B matrices,

$$f(A, B) = A \cdot B,$$

$$(A, B) \rightarrow P \xrightarrow{C} V \leftarrow (A, B).$$

P : compute $C = A \cdot B$, send C ,

V : check $A(Bv_i) = Cv_i$ for random v_i .

Prover: matrix multiplication $O(n^3)$ ($O(n^{\log_2(7)})$).

Verifier: $O(n^2)$.

Proof size: $O(n^3)$ (possible to reduce is $O(\log n)$).

Example.

Input: $(n, y) \in \mathbb{N}^2$,

$$f(n, y) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if there exists } x \text{ such that } y = x^2 \pmod{n} \\ 0 & \text{else} \end{cases} ;$$

quadratic?? reducibility problem.

$$(n, y) \rightarrow P \rightarrow V \leftarrow (n, y).$$

P : sample $r \in \mathbb{Z}_n$, $s = r^2$, send s ,

V : sample $b \in \{0, 1\}$, send b ,

P : if $b = 0$: $m_2 = r$, if $b = 1$: $m_2 = r \cdot x$, send m_2 ,

V : accepts if $m_2^2 = s \cdot y^b$.

Completeness:

$$m_2^2 \stackrel{?}{=} s \cdot y^b$$

if $b = 0$:

$$m_2 = r$$

$$r^2 = m_2^2 = s \quad \checkmark$$

if $b = 1$:

$$m_2^2 = sy$$

$$r^2 x^2 = sy \quad \checkmark (r^2 = s, x^2 = y)$$

Soundness:

- 2 options for what prover does.
 - Send s such that there is no r that $r^2 = s$.
 Then with probability $\frac{1}{2}$ is $b = 0$.
 Then prover needs to send m_2 such that $m_2^2 = s$ (impossible)
 $\implies$ fail with probability at least $\frac{1}{2}$.
 - Send s such that $r^2 = s$.
 Then with probability $\frac{1}{2}$ is $b = 1$.
 $m_2^2 = sy = r^2 y \implies y = (m_2 r^{-1})^2 \implies \exists x : x^2 = y$: contradiction
 $\implies$ fail with probability at least $\frac{1}{2}$.

With zero-knowledge.

12.1 Sum-check protocol

Let $g(x_1 \dots x_n)$ be multivariate polynomial of degree d over $\mathbb{F}$.

Let $H_g = \sum_{b_1 \dots b_n \in \{0,1\}} g(b_1 \dots b_n)$.

P wants to convince V that $c = H_g$.

$g \rightarrow P \rightarrow V \leftarrow g$.

P : sends c ,

P : compute $g_1(x) = \sum_{b_2 \dots b_n \in \{0,1\}} g(x, b_2 \dots b_n)$, send $g_1(x)$,

V : check $g_1(0) + g_1(1) = c$, $\deg(g) \leq d$, sample $r_1 \in \mathbb{F}$, send r_1 ,

for $j = 2 \dots n - 1$:

P : compute $g_j(x) = \sum_{b_{j+1} \dots b_n \in \{0,1\}} g(r_1 \dots r_{j-1}, x, b_{j+1} \dots b_n)$, send $g_j(x)$,

V : checks $g_j(0) + g_j(1) = g_{j-1}(r_{j-1})$, $\deg(g_j) \leq d$, sample $r_j \in \mathbb{F}$, send r_j ,

P : compute $g_n(x) = g(r_1 \dots r_{n-1}, x)$, send $g_n(x)$,

V : checks $g_n(0) + g_n(1) = g_{n-1}(r_{n-1})$, $\deg(g_n) \leq d$, for random $r_n \in \mathbb{F}$ check $g_n(r_n) = g(r_1 \dots r_n)$.

Completeness:

✓(sum, all possibilities).

Cost:

Prover: $O(2^n)$,

verifier: evaluate $g_i \forall i$, g at one point, $\ll O(2^n)$.

Communication:

$\deg(g_1) + \dots + \deg(g_{n-1}) + O(n)$ elements of $\mathbb{F}$.

Prove that $H_g = \sum_{b_1 \dots b_n \in \{0,1\}} g(b_1 \dots b_n)$.

Soundness:

P : sends $g_i(x)$.

If P cheats, at least one of polynomials is not correct.

Sends $g'_i(x) \neq g_i(x)$.

Verifier checks $g'_i(r_i) = g_{i+1}(0) + g_{i+1}(1) = g_i(r_i)$

$\rightarrow$ probability of this: $\leq \frac{d}{|\mathbb{F}|}$.

Soundness error: $\leq n \cdot \frac{d}{|\mathbb{F}|}$; union bound of rounds.

Application 1:

Counting solutions of SAT.

F SAT formula with s operations and n variables.

Replace with polynomial $g(x_1 \dots x_n)$ such that $F(b_1 \dots b_n) = g(b_1 \dots b_n)$.

For every $b_1 \dots b_n$:

replace $AND(x,y)$ with $x \cdot y$, $OR(x,y)$ with $x + y - x \cdot y$, $NOT(x)$ with $1 - x$.

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Number of SAT solutions} &= \sum_{b_1 \dots b_n \in \{0,1\}} F(b_1 \dots b_n) \\ &= \sum_{b_1 \dots b_n \in \{0,1\}} g(b_1 \dots b_n). \end{aligned}$$

Prover can prove that H_g = number of solutions by using sum-check.

Complexity:

prover: $O(2^n)$,

proof size (communication complexity): $O(n)$ - n polynomials,

verifier: $O(n + s)$.

Error: $\leq \frac{n \cdot s}{|\mathbb{F}|}$; s : number of operations.

Application 2:

Counting triangles in G .

A : adjacency matrix.

$$\text{Number of triangles in } G = \frac{\text{tr}(A^3)}{6}.$$

We think of A as a mapping.

$$[n] \times [n] \rightarrow \{0, 1\}.$$

Define $A' : \{0, 1\}^{\log_2 n} \times \{0, 1\}^{\log_2 n} \rightarrow \{0, 1\}$,

such that $A(i, j) = A'(binary(i), binary(j))$.

For example: $n = 16$, $A(0, 3) = A'(0000, 0011)$.

Now we define polynomial $f_A : \mathbb{F}^{\log_2 n} \times \mathbb{F}^{\log_2 n} \rightarrow \mathbb{F}$

$f_A(x_1 \dots x_{\log_2 n}, y_1 \dots y_{\log_2 n})$ such that

$f_A(b_1 \dots c_{\log_2 n}) = A'(b_1 \dots c_{\log_2 n})$ for every $b_1 \dots c_{\log_2 n} \in \{0, 1\}$.

Example: $A = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$, $f_A(x, y) = x(1 - y) + y(1 - x)$.

In general:

$$f_A(x_1 \dots x_{\log_2 n}, y_1 \dots y_{\log_2 n}) = \sum_{a, b \in \{0, 1\}^{\log_2 n}, A'(a, b) = 1} (-1)^{\text{num_zeros}(a, b)} (x_1 - (1 - a_1)) \dots (y_{\log_2 n} - (1 - b_{\log_2 n})).$$

Now we define $g_A(x, y, z) = f_A(x, y) \cdot f_A(y, z) \cdot f_A(z, x)$, $x, y, z \in \mathbb{F}^{\log_2 n}$.

Number of triangles = $\frac{\sum_{a, b, c \in \{0, 1\}^{\log_2 n} g_A(a, b, c)} 1}{6}$

$\implies$ we can use sum-check.

Proof size: $O(3 \cdot \log_2 n)$ (number of rounds $\rightarrow$ poly),

verifier: $O(\log_2 n) + O(n^2)$.

12.2 SNARK

Succint Non-interactive ARgument of Knowledge.

Succint: proof short and verification fast.

Non-interactive: just sending a proof.

$x \rightarrow P \rightarrow V \leftarrow x$.

P : convince V that $f(x) = y$.

- $f(x) = x^3 + x + 5$ as a algebraic circuit.

Break down into $+$, $-$, $*$, $/$ in some field $\mathbb{Z}_p$

Proof with states $\vec{s} = (\text{five}, x, \text{out}, s_1, s_2, s_3)$.

Example: proof that $f(3) = 35$.

$$\vec{s} = (1, 3, 35, 9, 27, 30).$$

- To R1CS.

Give vectors $\vec{a}_i, \vec{b}_i, \vec{c}_i$ for each state such that

$$(\vec{a}_i \cdot \vec{s}) \cdot (\vec{b}_i \cdot \vec{s}) = (\vec{c}_i \cdot \vec{s}) \iff \text{gate } i \text{ was correctly calculated.}$$

Example.

For gate 1 ($\cdot$):

$$\vec{a}_1 = [0, 1, 0, 0, 0, 0]$$

$$\vec{b}_1 = [0, 1, 0, 0, 0, 0]$$

$$\vec{c}_1 = [0, 0, 0, 1, 0, 0]$$

$$\vec{a}_1 \cdot \vec{s} = x, \vec{c}_1 \cdot \vec{s} = s_1.$$

For gate 3 ($+$):

$$\vec{a}_3 = [0, 1, 0, 0, 1, 0]$$

$$\vec{b}_3 = [1, 0, 0, 0, 1, 0]$$

$$\vec{c}_3 = [0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 1]$$

$$(x + s_2) \cdot 1 = s_3.$$

We have instead of circuit

$$\begin{bmatrix} \vec{a}_1 \\ \vec{a}_2 \\ \vdots \\ \vec{a}_n \end{bmatrix} \cdot \vec{s} \odot \begin{bmatrix} \vec{b}_1 \\ \vec{b}_2 \\ \vdots \\ \vec{b}_n \end{bmatrix} \cdot \vec{s} - \begin{bmatrix} \vec{c}_1 \\ \vec{c}_2 \\ \vdots \\ \vec{c}_n \end{bmatrix} \cdot \vec{s} = \vec{0}.$$

$\odot$: coordinate-wise multiplication.

$\vec{s}$ needs to be solution for

$$A \cdot \vec{s} \odot B \cdot \vec{s} = C \cdot \vec{s};$$

A, B, C $m \times n$ matrices.

- To Quadratic Arithmetic Programs (QAP).

Let $a_i(x)$ be a polynomial such that

$$a_i(j) = \vec{a}_j[i] \text{ for } i \in [n], j \in [m].$$

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} a_1(1) & a_2(1) & \dots & a_n(1) \\ a_1(2) & \dots & & \\ \vdots & & & \\ a_1(m) & \dots & & a_n(m) \end{bmatrix}.$$

Example:

$$a_1(x) = -5 + 9.16x + 5x^2 + 0 - 833x^3$$

$$a_2(x) = 8 - 11.33x + 5x^2 - 0.666x^3$$

$$a_3(x) = 0$$

$$\vdots$$

$$a_6(x) = \dots$$

$$[a_1(1) \dots a_6(1)] = [0, 1, 0, 0, 0, 0] = \vec{a}_1.$$

We get a_i with interpolation $\deg a_i \leq n - 1$.

$$([a_1(x), a_2(x) \dots a_n(x)] \cdot \vec{s}) \odot ([b_1(x), b_2(x) \dots b_n(x)] \cdot \vec{s}) - ([c_1(x), c_2(x) \dots c_n(x)] \cdot \vec{s})$$

should have zeros in $1, 2 \dots m$

$$\iff A(x) \cdot B(x) \cdot C(x) = (x - 1)(x - 2) \dots (x - m) \cdot h(x).$$

Summary up to now:

- instead of states we have polynomials,
- instead of states, we have coefficients $\cdot \vec{s}$.

$$a_i(x), b_i(x), c_i(x) \rightarrow P \rightarrow V \leftarrow a_i(x), b_i(x), c_i(x).$$

$P \rightarrow V$: $A(x), B(x), C(x), h(x)$: too much.

$P \rightarrow V$: $A(r), B(r), C(r), h(r)$, r random.

V : checks $A(r) \cdot B(r) = C(r) + h(r) \cdot t(r)$;

works if V doesn't cheat.

Cryptographic background:

- Lets have pairs

$(g_1, h_1), (g_2, h_2) \dots (g_n, h_n)$, where $g_i^k = h_i$, you don't know k .

Cryptographic assumption: if we provide (g', h') such that

$$(g')^k = h', \text{ then } g' = g_1^{k_1} \cdot g_n^{k_n}, h' = h_1^{k_1} \cdot h_n^{k_n}.$$

- Pairing groups.

In some group one can define a pairing

$e : G \times G \rightarrow G_r$ such that

$$e(g_1 \cdot g_2, h) = e(g_1, h) \cdot e(g_2, h),$$

$$e(g, h_1 \cdot h_2) = e(g, h_1) \cdot e(g, h_2),$$

$$e(g^x, g^y) = e(g, g)^{xy}.$$

Assume P, V have

$$- g^{a_1(r)}, g^{a_2(r)} \dots,$$

$$- g^{b_1(r)}, g^{b_2(r)} \dots,$$

$$- g^{c_1(r)}, g^{c_2(r)} \dots,$$

$$- g^{t(r)},$$

$$- g, g^r, g^{r^2} \dots g^{r^{n-1}}$$

without knowing r .

Improved protocol:

P sends to V

$$- g^{A(r)} = (g^{a_1(r)})^{k_1} \dots (g^{a_n(r)})^{k_n}$$

$$- g^{B(r)} \dots$$

$$- g^{C(r)} \dots$$

$$- g^{h(r)} = g^{h_0} \cdot (g^r)^{k_1} \dots (g^{r^{n-1}})^{k_{n-1}}.$$

V : checks $e(g^{A(r)}, g^{B(r)}) = e(g^{C(r)}, g) \cdot e(g^{h(r)}, g^{t(r)})$.

Problem: $g^{A(r)}$ needs to be linear combination of $g^{a_1(r)} \dots g^{a_n(r)}$, also $g^{B(r)}, g^{C(r)}$.

We need additional values:

- $g^{a_1(r) \cdot k_1} \dots g^{a_n(r) \cdot k_1}$, k_1 unknown,
- $g^{b_i(r) \cdot k_2} \dots$,
- $g^{c_i(r) \cdot k_3} \dots$,
- $g^{k_1}, g^{k_2}, g^{k_3}$.

Prover also submits:

- $g^{k_1 A(r)} = \left(g^{a_1(r) k_1}\right)^{s_1} \dots \left(g^{a_n(r) k_1}\right)^{s_1}$
- $g^{k_2 B(r)} = \dots$
- $g^{k_3 C(r)} = \dots$

Verifier calculates

- $e\left(g^{A(r)}, g^{k_1}\right) = e\left(g^{k_1 \cdot A(r)}, g\right)$,
- $e\left(g^{B(r)}, g^{k_2}\right) = \dots$

$\implies$ by crypto assumption $A(r)$ is linear combination of $a_1(r) \dots a_n(r)$.

Downside: we need $g^{a_1(r)} \dots$